Tracing the Effects of Symmetry in Hypergraphs On the Fredman-Khachiyan Algorithm

by

Saimon Y. Islam

B.Sc. in Mathematics, Washington and Lee University, 2019

Thesis Submitted in Partial Fulfillment of the
Requirements for the Degree of
Master of Science

in the
Department of Mathematics
Faculty of Science

© Saimon Y. Islam 2024
SIMON FRASER UNIVERSITY
Summer 2024

Copyright in this work is held by the author. Please ensure that any reproduction
or re-use is done in accordance with the relevant national copyright legislation.

Declaration of Committee

Name: **Saimon Y. Islam**

Degree: **Master of Science**

Thesis title: **Tracing the Effects of Symmetry in Hypergraphs On the Fredman-Khachiyan Algorithm**

Committee:

Chair: Amarpreet Rattan
Associate Professor, Mathematics

Tamon Stephen
Senior Supervisor
Professor, Mathematics

Ladislav Stacho
Supervisor
Professor, Mathematics

Luis Goddyn
Examiner
Professor, Mathematics

Abstract

Determining if two Sperner hypergraphs H_1 and H_2 are transversals of each other in polynomial time remains a longstanding open problem in combinatorial optimization. Fredman and Khachiyan proposed two quasi-polynomial time algorithms, `FK-A` and`FK-B`, to solve it. While `FK-A` performs well for most hypergraphs, it's shown to perform poorly with some families of hypergraphs exhibiting a high degree of symmetry.

This thesis analyzes the symmetry in clique hypergraphs and their transversals by their underlying graph structure and gains insight into how the `FK-A` recursion impacts their symmetry. We also show that `FK-A` decomposition induces a minor map on the underlying graph of hypergraphs, and present characterization of hypergraphs that `FK-A` struggles with. Additionally, we present a modified implementation of `FK-A` and show the changes in hypergraph symmetry during the recursive decomposition of `FK-A`.

Keywords: Hypergraph Transversal; Monotone Boolean Function; Automorphism

Dedication

I am dedicating this thesis to my sister, Afroza Islam Ima. She was not only my first teacher but also an unwavering source of guidance throughout my life. This work stands as a tribute to her memory, reflecting her aspirations for me and honoring the profound impact she had on my journey. Here's to everything I didn't get to say to you.

Acknowledgements

I want to thank my parents for their unwavering support and encouragement throughout my studies. I am also grateful to my friends in Vancouver and my roommates from Foster, who stood by me through both good and challenging times.

I sincerely thank my supervisor, Tamon Stephen, for his guidance and support. For the entire duration of my program, I had gone through some difficult periods when I needed support. Whenever I felt lost in the work or frustrated with the progress, he helped me and guided me to stay motivated and find direction. His patience and advice were essential throughout this journey.

I also want to thank the faculty members I learned from and worked with as a TA, as well as the graduate students I collaborated with. Your support made this experience valuable and rewarding.

Lastly, thank you to ChatGPT for helping me resolve countless LaTeX errors and teaching me how to draw tikz figures along the way.

Table of Contents

Declaration of Committee ii

Abstract iii

Dedication iv

Acknowledgements v

Table of Contents vi

List of Figures viii

1 Introduction 1

1.1 Definitions . . . 2

1.1.1 Hypergraph Terminology . . . 2

1.1.2 Monotone Boolean Functions Terminology . . . 4

1.2 Applications . . . 6

1.3 Recent Developments . . . 7

1.4 Thesis Outline . . . 8

2 Background 10

2.1 The `Trans-Hyp` Problem . . . 10

2.1.1 Properties of Transversal Hypergraphs . . . 10

2.1.2 Problem Representation . . . 10

2.2 Fredman-Khachiyan Algorithm `FK-A` . . . 11

2.2.1 Base Conditions for `FK-A` . . . 12

2.2.2 Recursive Decomposition . . . 14

2.3 `FK-A` Bound . . . 15

3 Hypergraph Symmetry and `FK-A` Recursion 18

3.1 Symmetries in Hypergraphs . . . 18

3.2 Vertex Symmetry in Lower Recursion Levels of `FK-A` . . . 22

3.3 Impact of `FK-A` on Symmetry . . . 30

3.4 Primal Graph of A Hypergraph and FK-A Recursion 32
3.5 Symmetry in FK-A Recursion 34

4 Hard Classes of Hypergraphs for FK-A **36**
4.1 Hypergraph Operations 36
4.2 Alternating Trees 37
4.2.1 $\mathcal{GK}$-family 37
4.2.2 $\mathcal{TK}$-family 38
4.2.3 Combined Alternating Trees 39
4.3 Frequency Bound on Alternating Families 40
4.3.1 Bound on $\mathcal{GK}$-family 40
4.3.2 Frequency Bound on $\mathcal{TK}$-family of Hypergraphs 40
4.4 Read-Once Hypergraphs 41
4.4.1 Primal Graphs of Read-Once Hypergraphs 41
4.4.2 Automorphism Structure of Read-Once Hypergraphs 43

5 Code and Experiments **46**
5.1 Implementation of FK-A 46
5.1.1 Modifications in the Implementation of FK-A 46
5.1.2 Visualization of theFK-A Algorithm and Recursion Tree 47
5.2 Experiments and Results 48
5.2.1 Problem Instances 48
5.2.2 Results and Observations 51
5.3 Future Direction 56

Bibliography **59**
5.4 Appendix of Figures 62

List of Figures

Figure 3.1 Hypergraphs St_2 and Pn_3 and their transversals. 25
Figure 3.2 Hypergraph $K_3^{\cdot}$ and its transversal. Hypergraph $\overline{\mathrm{Pn}_3}$ and its transversal. 26
Figure 3.3 Hypergraph $D_{3,1}$ and its transversal. Hypergraph St_3 and its transversal. 27
Figure 3.4 Hypergraph K_3 and its transversal. Hypergraph K_4^{-} and its transversal. 28
Figure 3.5 Hypergraph P_4 and its transversal. Hypergraph hw_3 and its transversal. 29
Figure 3.6 Hypergraph $K_2^{\cdot\cdot}$ and its transversal. Hypergraph C_4 and its transversal. 29
Figure 3.7 Hypergraph K_4 and its transversal. 29

Figure 4.1 Hypergraphs f_2 and g_2 in the $\mathcal{GK}$-family. 38
Figure 4.2 Alternating Tree g_2 in $\mathcal{GK}$ family 40

Figure 5.1 `FK-A` recursion tree and automorphism tree of f_2, g_2 52
Figure 5.2 `FK-A` recursion tree and automorphism tree of the Fano Plane . . . 55
Figure 5.3 Visualizations of hypergraphs on 6 vertices in `FK-A` 57
Figure 5.4 `FK-A` recursion tree and automorphism tree of $6A$, $6B$, $6C$, and $6D$ 58
Figure 5 `FK-A` recursion tree and automorphism tree of 7-Ver. Hypergraph . 63
Figure 6 `FK-A` recursion tree and automorphism tree of 8-ver. hypergraph . . 64
Figure 7 `FK-A` recursion tree on asymmetric hypergraph $Asym_1$ 65
Figure 8 Automorphism Tree of an asymmetric hypergraph **Asym**-1 in `FK-A` 65
Figure 9 `FK-A` recursion tree on asymmetric hypergraph $Asym_2$ 66
Figure 10 Automorphism Tree of an asymmetric hypergraph **Asym**-2in `FK-A` 67

Chapter 1

Introduction

A *hypergraph* H is as a pair (V, E), where V is a set of *vertices*, and $E = \{e_1, e_2, \ldots, e_m\}$ is a set of *hyperedges* (nonempty subsets of V). For hypergraph $H = (V, E)$, if $e_i \subseteq e_j \implies i = j$ holds for all hyperedges, it's called a *Sperner* hypergraph (often called *simple* hypergraph). A set $T \subseteq V$ is a *transversal* of H if it intersects all the edges. A transversal of H is *minimal* if every proper subset of it are also not transversal. The set of all minimal transversals of H constitutes a Sperner hypergraph on V called the *transversal hypergraph* of H, and denoted by $Tr(H)$.

We denote the verification of two given hypergraphs as transversal hypergraphs as the *Transversal Hypergraph* problem, or `Trans-Hyp`. The problem decides, given two Sperner hypergraphs H_1 and H_2, if they are transversal to each other. Solving `Trans-Hyp` in output-polynomial time remains an open problem [EMG08]. As the number of minimal transversals of a hypergraph can be exponential in size relative to the input hypergraph, for any algorithm solving `Trans-Hyp`, it's efficiency is measured in terms of the total input and output sizes. `Trans-Hyp` is probably not coNP-complete since in [EGM03]

Generating the transversal hypergraph is a longstanding problem of interest. Perhaps the simplest and most well-known algorithm to generate the transversal hypergraph is the sequential method, also known as Berge's algorithm [Ber87]. However, [Tak08] showed that for a family of hypergraphs (denoted here as $\mathcal{TK}$-family), sequential method generates exponential sized (in total size of input and output) intermediate hypergraphs.

In 1996, Fredman and Khachiyan in [FK96] showed that `Trans-Hyp` is solvable in pseudo-polynomial time, namely in time $\mathcal{O}(n^{polylog(n)})$, where n is the combined size of the input i.e., the total number of hyperedges of the two hypergraphs. They developed two algorithms we will call `FK-A` and `FK-B`, and showed that their running times are bounded by $n^{\mathcal{O}(\log^2 n)}$ and $n^{\mathcal{O}(\log n)}$, respectively. These algorithms, unlike Berge's, can be used as an oracle for computing the transversal hypergraph in incremental output-subexponential time, the best provable upper time bound yet [CKP20].

The results of Fredman and Khachiyan made significant advancements in the tractability of Trans-Hyp. Since there is no known polynomial algorithm for `Trans-Hyp`, emphasis has

been on identifying restrictions on input hypergraphs that sufficiently simplify the problem to allow for polynomial-timed solution we call *tractable classes* of hypergraphs. Such classes include hypergraphs of bounded edge-size, of bounded degree, of bounded-edge intersections, tree width, latency, and acyclic hypergraphs etc. [EMG08]. While the algorithms work well in practice for most hypergraphs, their characteristics for general classes of hypergraphs are poorly understood. For some tractable classes, there are families of hypergraphs for whom `FK-A` has superpolynomial lower bounds. The symmetric structure of the hypergraph has not been a well-explored area regarding understanding why `FK-A` performs suboptimally for these hypergraphs. This thesis aims to gain a better understanding of the symmetric properties of the hypergraphs with superpolynomial lower bound in `FK-A` by analyzing their structural composition with respect to their underlying graph structure and how their automorphism groups are formed, and highlights how they interact with the `FK-A` recursion.

1.1 Definitions

1.1.1 Hypergraph Terminology

Definition 1.1.1. Let $V = \{v_1, v_2, \ldots, v_n\}$ be a finite set. A *hypergraph* on V is a family $H = (V, E)$ where $E = \{e_1, e_2, \ldots, e_m\}$ is a set of subsets of V. Each subset is called a *hyperedge*, and V is the *vertex* set.

Definition 1.1.2. A *Sperner Hypergraph* is a hypergraph $H = (V, E)$ such that $e_i \subseteq e_j \implies i = j$.

Sperner hypergraphs are also called *simple* hypergraphs. In many recent literature, they are also called *clutters*

Definition 1.1.3. Let $H = (V, E(H))$ be a hypergraph. The *Sperner reduced hypergraph* of H, denoted $min(H) = (V, E_{min}(H))$, is defined as the hypergraph where:

$$E_{min}(H) = \{e \in E(H) \mid \nexists e' \in E(H) \text{ such that } e \subset e'\}.$$

In other words, $min(H)$ consists of all inclusion-minimal hyperedges of H.

Definition 1.1.4. Let $H = (e_1, \ldots, e_m)$ be a hypergraph on a set V. A vertex $v_i \in V$ *hits* a hyperedge e_j when $v_i \in e_j$. A set $f \subseteq V$ is a *transversal* or a *hitting set* of H if it intersects all the edges: $f \cap e_i \neq \emptyset \quad (i = 1, 2, \ldots, m)$.
A transversal is *minimal* when any of its proper subsets is not a transversal. The set of all minimal transversals of H constitutes a hypergraph on V called the *transversal hypergraph* of H, and denoted by $Tr(H)$. Note that $Tr(H)$ is Sperner by definition.

Lately, transversals have also been called *blockers* by many.

Proposition 1.1.5. *Let $H = (V, E(H))$ be a hypergraph, and let $min(H) = (V, E_min(H))$ be its Sperner reduction. Then $Tr(H) = Tr(min(H))$.*

[Ber87] The transversal hypergraph remains unchanged under Sperner reduction.

Definition 1.1.6. The *degree* of a vertex v_i in a hypergraph $H = (V, E)$ is the number of hyperedges in E that contain the vertex v_i. Formally, for any vertex $v \in V$, its degree is $|\{e \in E \mid v \in e\}|$.

Definition 1.1.7. Let $G = (V, E(G))$ be a graph. The *distance* $d_G(v, u)$ between two vertices $v, u \in V$ is the length of the shortest path connecting v and u in G. If no such path exists, $d_G(v, u)$ is defined as ∞.

Definition 1.1.8. A *uniform hypergraph* is a hypergraph $H = (V, E)$ where all hyperedges have the same size. Specifically, an *r-uniform* hypergraph is a hypergraph where every hyperedge $e \in E$ satisfies $|e| = r$ for some fixed integer r. Any graph G without loops or multi-edges is a 2-uniform hypergraph. All uniform hypergraphs are Sperner.

Definition 1.1.9. A *regular hypergraph* is a hypergraph $H = (V, E)$ where every vertex has the same degree. Specifically, an *(r, d)-regular* hypergraph is an r-uniform hypergraph where every vertex $v \in V$ has degree d.

Example 1.1.10. A complete r-uniform hypergraph on n vertices is denoted by K_n^r. In this case, $V = \{v_1, v_2, \ldots, v_n\}$ and $E = \{e \subseteq V \mid |e| = r\}$, meaning that every r-subset of n vertices forms a hyperedge. The degree of any vertex $v \in V$ in K_n^r is $\binom{n-1}{r-1}$.

Definition 1.1.11. The *complement* of a subset $I \subseteq V$ with respect to the hypergraph $H = (V, E(H))$, denoted I^c, is the set of vertices in V that are not in I, i.e., $I^c = V \setminus I$.

Definition 1.1.12. A subset of vertices $I \subseteq V$ is an *independent set* of the hypergraph H if no hyperedge $e_j \in E(H)$ is entirely contained in I, i.e., $e_j \nsubseteq I$ for all $e_j \in E(H)$.

Definition 1.1.13. A subset of vertices $S \subseteq V$ is a *stable set* of the hypergraph H if each hyperedge $e_j \in E(H)$ contains at most one vertex from S, i.e., $|e_j \cap S| \leq 1$ for all $e_j \in E(H)$.

An independent set is *maximal* if none of its proper supersets is an independent set. Note that if I is an independent set of H, then $I^c \cap e_j \neq \emptyset$ for all $e_j \in E(H)$, i.e., I^c is a transversal of H. In particular, I^c is a minimal transversal of H if and only if I is a maximal independent set of H. In an independent set of a hypergraph, no hyperedge is fully contained in the set, while in a stable set, no hyperedge contains more than one vertex from the set. For 2-uniform hypergraphs (graphs), independent sets are the same as stable sets.

Example 1.1.14. Let G be a transportation network, represented as a directed graph with a *source* s and a *sink* t. Define the hypergraph $H = (V, E)$, where the $V = V(G)$, and the hyperedge set E consists of all sets of vertices that correspond to simple (non-repeating)

paths from s to t in G. H is a simple hypergraph, and the transversal hypergraph $Tr(H)$ consists of the minimal cuts between s and t, where a minimal cut is a minimal set of vertices whose removal disconnects all paths from s to t.

Definition 1.1.15. The *clique hypergraph* of a graph $G = (V, E(G))$ is the hypergraph $H = (V, E(H))$, where $E(H)$ consists of all maximal cliques of G as its hyperedges.

Definition 1.1.16. The *stable hypergraph* of a graph $G = (V, E(G))$ is the hypergraph $H = (V, E(H))$, where $E(H)$ consists of all maximal stable sets of G as its hyperedges.

1.1.2 Monotone Boolean Functions Terminology

Definition 1.1.17. A *literal* is a variable x_i or its complement $(x_i)^c$. For a set of n variables, a Boolean expression can be formed using literals.

Definition 1.1.18. A *Boolean function* on n literals is a mapping $f : \{0,1\}^n \to \{0,1\}$. A Boolean expression $\mathbf{x} = (x_1, x_2, \ldots, x_n)$ is a tuple in $\{0,1\}^n$, where x_i denotes the value of the i-th literal.

Definition 1.1.19. An *implicant* of a Boolean function f is a Boolean expression in the form of a conjunction of literals, denoted $I = x_1 \wedge x_2 \wedge \cdots \wedge x_k$, such that $I(\mathbf{x}) = 1$ implies $f(\mathbf{x}) = 1$ for all $\mathbf{x} \in \{0,1\}^n$.

Definition 1.1.20. A *prime implicant* of a Boolean function f is an implicant that cannot be simplified by removing any literal without losing its ability to imply f. Formally, I is a prime implicant if no proper subexpression of I is an implicant of f.

Example 1.1.21. For $f(x_1, x_2) = x_1 \vee x_2$, x_1 and x_2 are prime implicants. The conjunction $x_1 \wedge x_2$ is an implicant but not a prime implicant, as it can be reduced to x_1 or x_2.

Definition 1.1.22. An *implicate* of a Boolean function f is a Boolean expression in the form of a disjunction of literals, denoted $I = x_1 \vee x_2 \vee \cdots \vee x_k$, such that $f(\mathbf{x}) = 0$ implies $I(\mathbf{x}) = 0$ for all $\mathbf{x} \in \{0,1\}^n$.

Definition 1.1.23. A *prime implicate* of a Boolean function f is an implicate that cannot be simplified by removing any literal without losing its status as an implicate. Formally, I is a prime implicate if no proper subexpression of I is an implicate of f.

Example 1.1.24. For $f(x_1, x_2) = x_1 \wedge x_2$, $x_1^c \vee x_2^c$ is a prime implicate. The disjunction $x_1^c \vee x_2^c \vee x_3^c$ is an implicate but not a prime implicate, as it simplifies to $x_1^c \vee x_2^c$.

Definition 1.1.25. A Boolean function is in *Conjunctive Normal Form (CNF)* if it is expressed as an irredundant conjunction of disjunctions of its prime implicates:

$$C = \bigwedge_{c \in I} \bigvee_{i \in c} a_i,$$

where I is the set of prime implicates of f.

Definition 1.1.26. A Boolean function is in *Disjunctive Normal Form (DNF)* if it is represented as an irredundant disjunction of conjunctions of its prime implicants:

$$D = \bigvee_{t \in A} \bigwedge_{j \in t} a_j,$$

where A is the set of prime implicants of f.

Definition 1.1.27. A Boolean function f is *irredundant* if its minimal representation, in either CNF or DNF, contains no redundant prime implicants or prime implicates. Removing any such implicant or implicate changes the function's output.

Example 1.1.28. For $f(x_1, x_2) = x_1 \vee x_2$, the DNF $x_1 \vee x_2$ is irredundant. In contrast, $x_1 \vee x_2 \vee x_3$ is not irredundant, as x_3 is unnecessary.

In this thesis, the terms Boolean *function* and Boolean *expression* will be used interchangeably.

Definition 1.1.29. A Boolean function is *monotone* if it can be represented by conjunctions ($\wedge$) and disjunctions ($\vee$) of its variables and satisfies the following condition for any $x, y \in \{0,1\}^n$:

$$x \leq y \implies f(x) \leq f(y),$$

where $x \leq y$ if $x_i \leq y_i, \quad \forall i \in \{1, 2, \ldots, n\}$.

Example 1.1.30. Consider the Boolean function $f(x_1, x_2) = x_1 \vee (x_1 \wedge x_2)$. It's monotone since

$$f(0,0) = 0, \quad f(0,1) = 0, \quad f(1,0) = 1, \quad f(1,1) = 1,$$

and for any $x \leq y$, $f(x) \leq f(y)$. ($f(0,0) \leq f(1,0)$ and $f(0,1) \leq f(1,1)$).

Definition 1.1.31. By De Morgan's laws, the *dual* of a monotone Boolean function f, denoted f^d, is defined as:

$$f^d(X) = f^c(X^c),$$

where:

- f^c is the complement of f.
- X^c is the complement of the set $X = \{x_1, x_2, \ldots, x_n\}$, defined as $X^c = \{x_1^c, x_2^c, \ldots, x_n^c\}$.

The dual function f^d is monotone and satisfies $(f^d)^d = f$. If f^d has a prime CNF f', and f has a prime DNF given by $f^b = \bigvee_{I \in \mathcal{F}} \bigwedge_{i \in I} x_i$, then the prime CNF of f is $f^b = \bigwedge_{I \in \mathcal{F}} \bigvee_{i \in I} x_i$.

Thus, computing the prime DNF of f^d from the prime CNF of f is equivalent to computing the prime CNF of f from its prime DNF. Since $(f^d)^d = f$, the two operations are dual to each other.

A Sperner hypergraph $H = (V, E(H))$ corresponds to an MBF f in its disjunctive normal form (DNF). The vertices V represent the variables of f, and the hyperedges $E(H)$ correspond to the prime implicants of f. Each hyperedge $e \in E(H)$ represents a minimal true setting of f, $min\{\mathbf{x} : f(\mathbf{x}) = 1\}$, and corresponds directly to a term in the DNF of f.

For a Boolean assignment $\mathbf{x}$, if $\mathbf{x}$ satisfies f, then $\mathbf{x}$ must intersect at least one hyperedge $e \in E(H)$. Conversely, any hyperedge $e \in E(H)$ corresponds to a term in the DNF of f, ensuring that H precisely represents f in terms of its minimal true settings.

The transversal hypergraph $Tr(H)$ corresponds to the conjunctive normal form (CNF) of the same MBF f. The hyperedges of $Tr(H)$ are the minimal hitting sets of H, and each hitting set $T \in Tr(H)$ corresponds to a clause in the CNF of f. Each clause is the disjunction of the literals in T, ensuring that every clause represents a minimal condition to satisfy f.

For every hyperedge $e \in E(H)$, there exists at least one literal in each hitting set $T \in Tr(H)$ that intersects e, ensuring that every clause in the CNF is satisfied whenever f is satisfied. Conversely, any assignment satisfying the CNF intersects all hyperedges of H, ensuring that it also satisfies f. Thus, $Tr(H)$ represents the CNF of f by capturing the minimal hitting sets of H.

This establishes a duality: the Sperner hypergraph H corresponds to the DNF of f, while the transversal hypergraph $Tr(H)$ corresponds to the CNF of f, ensuring that both hypergraph representations fully describe the MBF.

1.2 Applications

In this section, we provide an overview of problems that are modelled by hypergraphs in `Trans-Hyp`.

Set Cover Problem: For a hypergraph $H = (V, E)$, the vertices represent the elements of a set, and the edges are subsets of these elements. A *set cover* is a subset $E' \subseteq E$ such that every $v \in V$ is contained in at least one edge $e \in E'$. Each transversal of H corresponds to a set covering in the transversal hypergraph $Tr(H) = (E, \{e_v \mid v \in V\})$, where $e_v = \{e \in E \mid v \in e\}$. Thus, `Trans-Hyp` computes minimal set coverings or maximal independent sets in $Tr(H)$ [EMG08].

Minimal Dominating Sets: In a graph $G = (V, E)$, a *dominating set* $D \subseteq V$ ensures every $v \in V$ is in D or adjacent to $u \in D$. A dominating set D is minimal if no proper subset of D satisfies this condition. Minimal dominating sets correspond to minimal hitting sets of the hypergraph formed by neighborhoods of vertices in G.

Model-Based Diagnosis: Given a system S with its set of components V, a diagnosis identifies the minimal set of faulty components $D \subseteq V$ responsible for a set of faulty observations F. A diagnosis corresponds to a transversal of F. [Rei87].

Minimal Cut Sets in Metabolic Networks: A metabolic network is represented as a directed hypergraph where the vertex set V corresponds to metabolites and the edge set E represents biochemical reactions. Blocking a set of metabolic reactions through cut sets corresponds to finding minimal hitting sets of the hypergraph, making this an instance of *Trans-Gen*.

Drug Cocktail Development: Given a set of antibiotics and a set of bacterial strains, each strain (vertex) is associated with the set of antibiotics (edges) that are effective against it. A transversal of this hypergraph represents a minimal cocktail of antibiotics that is effective against all target strains.

1.3 Recent Developments

This section describes some of the *tractable* classes of hypergraphs and the techniques used to solve `Trans-Hyp` in polynomial time. Tractable classes are defined by input restrictions that make it possible to find efficient solutions. Research into these classes is important because it identifies cases where problems can be solved faster than general algorithms for hypergraph transversals. Whereas a *hard class* for an algorithm includes hypergraphs that causes suboptimal performance for a given algorithm, and studying these helps understand the lower bounds of the problem.

[Hag08] collected the tractable classes based on their restrictions. [EMG08], [GDVL17], and [DNU21] included surveys that cover various algorithms and methods used to prove tractability or related problems. For example, [MZ11] and [Her04] used `SAT` algorithms to improve the bounds of `FK-A`, while [SS24] applied reinforcement learning to find new *hard classes* of hypergraphs.

Size Restrictions on Hypergraphs

Hypergraphs with Fixed Number of Edges: `Trans-Hyp` can solve Sperner hypergraphs with a fixed number of edges $|E| = c$ in polynomial time $\mathcal{O}(n^c)$ [EG02].

Hypergraphs with Edge-Size Bound: `Trans-Hyp` can solve hypergraphs where the size of each edge is bounded by a fixed value k, i.e., $|e| \leq k$ for all $e \in E$, in polynomial time $\mathcal{O}(n^{k+1})$ [BGH98]. When $k = 2$, the hypergraph corresponds to a graph.

Hypergraphs with Large Edges: `Trans-Hyp` can solve hypergraphs where each edge satisfies $|e| \geq |V| - c$ for some constant c in $\mathcal{O}(n^{c+1})$ [BGH98]. Let V^c be the complement of $V' \subseteq V$, and define the set of complementary edges as $E^c = \{e^c \mid e \in E\}$. For a Sperner hypergraph $H = (V, E_H)$, define $\tau(E_H) = \{e \setminus \{v\} \mid e \in E_H, v \in e\}$. [EG02] shows that every edge $e_j \in Tr(H)$ is in $\tau(E_H)^c$.

Structural Restrictions on Hypergraphs

Acyclic Hypergraphs: `Trans-Hyp` can solve β-acyclic hypergraphs and Sperner, α-acyclic hypergraphs in polynomial time [EGM03].

Bounded Intersection: A hypergraph $H = (V, E)$ is called r-exact if any minimal transversal of H intersects every edge in at most r vertices. `Trans-Hyp` can solve hypergraphs with bounded intersection in polynomial time [ER10]. The class of hypergraphs with bounded intersection includes read-once hypergraphs, which are 1-exact (having the *CIS*-property), and hypergraphs with the circular ones property, which are 2-exact.

Bounded Conformality: A hypergraph $H = (V, E)$ is *bounded conformal* if for every subset $S \subseteq V$, $S \in e_i$ for some edge $e_i \in E$ whenever all subsets of S with size at most δ are contained in an edge $e_j \in E$. A hypergraph is *bounded dual conformal* if its transversal hypergraph $Tr(H)$ is bounded conformal for some constant. `Trans-Hyp` can solve both in polynomial time. [Hag08] Conformal hypergraphs include highly symmetric families, which will be analyzed in Chapter 4.

Bounded Intersecting Hypergraphs: bounded intersecting means input hypergraphs where any k edges intersect in at most r vertices, and $k + r \leq c$ for some constant c, `Trans-Hyp` can solve bounded intersecting hypergraphs in polynomial time [KBEG06].

k-Degenerate Hypergraphs: A hypergraph is k-degenerate if its vertices can be ordered as $v_1, v_2, \ldots, v_n$ such that, for each v_i, the number of edges containing v_i and vertices among $v_1, \ldots, v_{i-1}$ is at most k. `Trans-Hyp` can solve k-degenerate hypergraphs in polynomial time [EGM03].

Matroids: A Sperner hypergraph $H = (V, E)$ is a *matroid* if, for any two edges $e_i, e_j \in E$ and any vertex $v_l \in e_i \setminus e_j$, there exists a vertex $v_m \in e_j \setminus e_i$ such that $e_i \setminus \{v_l\} \cup \{v_m\} \in E$. `Trans-Hyp` can solve matroid hypergraphs in polynomial time [Ber87].

1.4 Thesis Outline

This thesis focuses on the relationship between the `FK-A` operation and the symmetric structure of hypergraphs generated at each recursion level. The thesis is divided into two main parts across five chapters. The first part includes Chapters 1 and 2. Chapter 1 introduces the necessary definitions, and the `Trans-Hyp` problem, describing its properties, applications, and tractable hypergraph classes. Chapter 2 details the `FK-A` algorithm, its necessary conditions, complexity bounds, and presents new results on `Trans-Hyp`.

The second part consists of Chapters 3, 4, and 5. Chapter 3 examines hypergraph symmetry, characterizes automorphism groups for small hypergraphs with up to 4 vertices, and some lemmas on how `FK-A` recursion impacts hypergraph symmetry and connects the primal graphs of hypergraphs with `FK-A` decomposition using generalizations of graph minor operations. Chapter 4 analyzes hard classes of hypergraphs for `FK-A` such as the alternating trees, and characterizes them as read-once hypergraphs. Then, it focuses on their structural and automorphism group properties. Chapter 5 discusses some optimizations made in the implementation of `FK-A`, visualizes recursion trees for interesting cases, and presents figures describing how recursion impacts the automorphism group structure of input hypergraphs.

Chapter 2

Background

2.1 The `Trans-Hyp` Problem

2.1.1 Properties of Transversal Hypergraphs

This section explores the sufficient and necessary conditions for a hypergraph to be the transversal hypergraph of another. The following results are based on [Ber87].

Lemma 2.1.1. *Let G and H be two Sperner hypergraphs on the same vertex set V. Then $H = Tr(G)$ if and only if, for all partitions (A, B) of V, where $A \cup B = V$ and $A \cap B = \emptyset$, the following conditions hold:*

1. *There exists either an $e_i \in E(H)$ such that $e_i \subseteq A$ or an $e_j \in E(G)$ such that $e_j \subseteq B$.*
2. *These two cases cannot happen simultaneously.*

This lemma establishes a fundamental property for recognizing transversal hypergraphs, which leads directly to the following corollaries.

Corollary 2.1.2. *Let G and H be two Sperner hypergraphs on the same vertex set V. Then $H = Tr(G)$ if and only if $G = Tr(H)$.*

Corollary 2.1.3. *Let H be a Sperner hypergraph. Then $Tr(Tr(H)) = H$.*

2.1.2 Problem Representation

We define `Trans-Hyp` as the problem of determining if two given hypergraphs are transversal to each other.

Problem 2.1.4 (*`Trans-Hyp`*)**.** ***Input:*** *Two hypergraphs $G = (V, E(G))$ and $H = (V, E(H))$.* ***Output:*** *Determine whether G and H are transversal to each other.*

Clearly, `Trans-Hyp` for two hypergraphs G and H is in co-NP, as shown in [FK96], since if H is not the transversal hypergraph of G, this can be verified by a set of vertices $S \subseteq V$

such that:

$$S \cap e_i \neq \emptyset \text{ for all } e_i \in E(G), \quad \text{and} \quad S \not\supseteq e_j \text{ for all } e_j \in E(H). \tag{2.1}$$

Intuitively, S is a transversal of G (not necessarily minimal) that does not fully contain any hyperedge of H. Such a set S acts as a *certificate* for the non-transversality of the pair (G, H), as discussed in [Rau11], although this perspective is inspired from [FK96] and earlier papers. We note that this condition is symmetric: if $S \subseteq V$ satisfies the above for (G, H), then $V \setminus S$ satisfies it for (H, G).

Hypergraphs are one medium for studying the `Trans-Hyp` problem. Monotone Boolean functions (MBFs) offer an alternate representation of the same problem. A Sperner hypergraph corresponds to the disjunctive normal form (DNF) of an MBF, where each hyperedge represents a minimal true setting of the function. Similarly, the transversal hypergraph corresponds to the conjunctive normal form (CNF) of the dual MBF, with each clause corresponding to a minimal condition for satisfaction. Using the MBF language, we can define the decision problem as the following:

Problem 2.1.5 (*DUAL*). ***Input:*** *Two monotone Boolean functions f and g, in CNF forms.* ***Output:*** *Are f and g dual?*

2.2 Fredman-Khachiyan Algorithm `FK-A`

The `FK-A` algorithm checks whether two hypergraphs G and H are a transversal pair through a recursive decomposition that generates a *recursion tree*, where each node represents a pair of hypergraphs being checked. At the root of the tree are the input hypergraphs G and H. The algorithm proceeds by splitting the input into two smaller subproblems whenever necessary, with the edges of the tree connecting parent nodes to their child subproblems.

The algorithm begins by performing a Sperner reduction on G and H, removing edges that are not minimal. After this, it checks the necessary conditions that all transversal pairs must satisfy as a base step, and they can be verified in polynomial time. If any of these preconditions fail, the algorithm immediately returns a witness based on 2.1.1. If the hypergraphs pass the precondition checks, the algorithm handles trivial instances of input hypergraphs (hypergraphs with a single edge containing 1 vertex or the empty hypergraph). In the recursive case, the algorithm selects the most frequent vertex in G or H as a pivot. Using this vertex, it partitions the edge sets of G and H into two smaller subproblems.

Importantly, if G and H are already transversal, these precondition checks do nothing to reduce computation and the algorithm decomposes further into smaller subproblems, creating child nodes in the recursion tree. The performance of `FK-A` is determined by the number of subproblems it generates, and this is reflected in the number of nodes of the recursion tree `FK-A` generates.

[?]

2.2.1 Base Conditions for `FK-A`

Let G and H be Sperner hypergraphs that are transversal to one another. [DNU21], [FK96] outlines some fundamental properties that must hold.

Proposition 2.2.1. *For every $e_i \in E(G)$ and $e_j \in E(H)$, $e_i \cap e_j \neq \emptyset$.*

Proof. Assume that there exists an edge $e_i \in E(G)$ and $e_j \in E(H)$ such that $e_i \cap e_j = \emptyset$. In this case, e_i does not intersect e_j, meaning that e_i fails to act as a minimal hitting set for H, which contradicts the assumption that G and H form a transversal pair. □

Proposition 2.2.2. $\bigcup\{e_i : e_i \in E(G)\} = \bigcup\{e_j : e_j \in E(H)\}$.

Proof. Suppose $\bigcup\{e_i : e_i \in E(G)\} \neq \bigcup\{e_j : e_j \in E(H)\}$. This implies either

$$\bigcup\{e_i : e_i \in E(G)\} \nsubseteq \bigcup\{e_j : e_j \in E(H)\} \quad \text{or} \quad \bigcup\{e_j : e_j \in E(H)\} \nsubseteq \bigcup\{e_i : e_i \in E(G)\}.$$

If $\bigcup\{e_i : e_i \in E(G)\} \nsubseteq \bigcup\{e_j : e_j \in E(H)\}$, there exists some vertex $v \in \bigcup\{e_i : e_i \in E(G)\}$ such that $v \notin \bigcup\{e_j : e_j \in E(H)\}$. Since v is not contained in any edge of H, removing v from H does not intersect any edge in H. Thus, H is not affected by the removal of v, and G and H cannot form a transversal pair.

Conversely, if $\bigcup\{e_j : e_j \in E(H)\} \nsubseteq \bigcup\{e_i : e_i \in E(G)\}$, there exists some vertex $v \in \bigcup\{e_j : e_j \in E(H)\}$ such that $v \notin \bigcup\{e_i : e_i \in E(G)\}$. Let $e_j \in E(H)$ be an edge containing v. Since v does not appear in any edge of G, removing v from G does not intersect any edge in G. Therefore, G and H cannot form a transversal pair. □

Proposition 2.2.3. $\max\{|e_i| : e_i \in E(G)\} \leq |H|$ *and* $\max\{|e_j| : e_j \in E(H)\} \leq |G|$.

Proof. First, we show that $\max\{|e_i| : e_i \in E(G)\} \leq |H|$. Let's assume that there exists an edge $e_i \in E(G)$ such that $|e_i| > |H|$. Let e_i' be a proper subset of e_i where $e_i' \cap e_j \neq \emptyset$ for every $e_j \in H$. Such a subset must exist. Suppose we remove e_i' from G and also remove every vertex in e_i' from H. Then $e_i \neq \emptyset$, so e_i still contains at least one vertex v. However, since all edges in H are intersected, this implies that e_i' is a transversal of H. As G is Sperner, this would mean $e_i' = e_i$, which is a contradiction because e_i was assumed to have vertices not in e_i'. Hence, such an e_i cannot exist.

Now we show that $\max\{|e_j| : e_j \in E(H)\} \leq |G|$. Assume that there exists an edge $e_j \in E(H)$ such that $|e_j| > |G|$. Let e_j' be a proper subset of e_j such that $e_j' \cap e_i \neq \emptyset$ for every $e_i \in G$. Let's remove e_j' from H and also remove every vertex in e_j' from G. Then $e_j \neq \emptyset$, so e_j still contains at least one vertex v. This similarly leads to a contradiction, as $e_j' = e_j$ violates the Sperner property of H. Therefore, no such e_j can exist. □

Algorithm 1 Algorithm `FK-A` for `Trans-Hyp` (cf. [FK96])

Input: Hypergraphs $G = (V(G), E(G))$ and $H = (V(H), E(H))$
Output:
if $G = Tr(H)$ **then**
    TRUE
else
    Return a witness $e_k \in E(G)$ such that $\exists e_l \in E(H)$ with $e_k \cap e_l = \emptyset$
end if

▷ Step 1: Sperner reduction

Sperner reduce G and H (delete all non-Sperner edges).

▷ Step 2: Check conditions (i)-(iv)

Check the following conditions:

(i) $V(G) = V(H) = V$
(ii) $\max\{|e_i| : e_i \in E(G)\} \leq |H|$ and $\max\{|e_j| : e_j \in E(H)\} \leq |G|$
(iii) $e_i \cap e_j \neq \emptyset, \forall e_i \in E(G), e_j \in E(H)$
(iv) $\sum_{e_i \in E(G)} 2^{-|e_i|} + \sum_{e_j \in E(H)} 2^{-|e_j|} \geq 1$

if any condition (i)-(iv) fails **then**
    $G \neq Tr(H)$
    Return e_k as a witness in polynomial time.
end if

▷ Step 3: Handle trivial cases

if $|G| \cdot |H| \leq 1$ **then**
    Return e_k by a trivial check in $\mathcal{O}(1)$ time.
end if

▷ Step 4: Recursive decomposition

if $|G| \cdot |H| \geq 2$ **then**
    Select a vertex $v_i \in V$ such that $\epsilon(v_i) \geq \frac{1}{\log(|G|+|H|)}$
    Define:
    - $G_0 = \{e_j - \{v_i\} \mid v_i \in e_j, e_j \in G\}$
    - $G_1 = \{e_j \mid v_i \notin e_j, e_j \in G\}$
    - $H_0 = \{e_k - \{v_i\} \mid v_i \in e_k, e_k \in H\}$
    - $H_1 = \{e_k \mid v_i \notin e_k, e_k \in H\}$
    Call `FK-A` on the following subproblems:
    L: $(G_1, H_0 \vee H_1)$
    R: $(H_1, G_0 \vee G_1)$
    if L AND **R** return **TRUE then**
        Return **TRUE** (G and H are transversal hypergraphs).
    else
        Return witness e_k in polynomial time.
    end if
end if

Proposition 2.2.4.

$$\sum_{e_i \in E(G)} 2^{-|e_i|} + \sum_{e_j \in E(H)} 2^{-|e_j|} \geq 1$$

Proof. Let G and H be Sperner hypergraphs that are transversal to each other. This implies that each minimal transversal of G corresponds to an edge in H, and each minimal transversal of H corresponds to an edge in G. Suppose that the sum is less than 1. This would imply that there exists an edge $e_i \in E(G)$ such that

$$\forall v_k \in e_i, \exists e_j \in H : v_k \notin e_j.$$

In this case, some vertices in e_i would not intersect any edge in H, which contradicts the assumption that H is a transversal of G. □

2.2.2 Recursive Decomposition

Let $\epsilon \in (0, 1]$. A vertex $v_i \in \{v_1, \ldots, v_n \in V\}$ is said to have frequency at least ϵ in hypergraphs G and H if:

$$\epsilon(v_i) \leq \max\left\{ \frac{\#\{e_j \in E(G) : v_i \in e_j\}}{|E(G)|}, \frac{\#\{e_j \in E(H) : v_i \in e_j\}}{|E(H)|} \right\}.$$

We denote that a vertex v_i has frequency $\geq \epsilon$ in G and H if $|E(G)| \cdot |E(H)| \geq 1$ and v_i has a frequency of at least ϵ in either G or H.

This frequency condition ensures the existence of a vertex v_i with these properties, referred to as a *frequent vertex*. For G and H, the vertex with the highest frequency in either hypergraph is called the *most frequent vertex* (MFV).

As described in 1, for a most frequent vertex $v \in V$, the hypergraphs G and H can be rewritten as:

$$G = (\{v\} \wedge G_0) \vee G_1, \quad H = (\{v\} \wedge H_0) \vee H_1$$

where:

$$G_0 = \{e_j - \{v\} \mid v \in e_j, e_j \in G\}, \quad G_1 = \{e_j \mid v \notin e_j, e_j \in G\}$$
$$H_0 = \{e_k - \{v\} \mid v \in e_k, e_k \in H\}, \quad H_1 = \{e_k \mid v \notin e_k, e_k \in H\}$$

The algorithm then reduces the problem to the following smaller subproblems:

$$\textbf{L: } (G_1, H_0 \wedge H_1), \qquad \textbf{R: } (H_1, G_0 \wedge G_1)$$

If both subproblems **L** and **R** return TRUE, the algorithm confirms that G and H are transversal hypergraphs. Otherwise, the algorithm identifies a hyperedge w in polynomial time that violates one of the transversal properties.

We define the subhypergraphs as input for the subproblems generated by FK-A recursion as the following:

Definition 2.2.5. Let $H = (V, E)$ be a hypergraph and $v \in V$ be a vertex. We define the *contraction subhypergraph* of v as the induced subhypergraph $H/v = (V_v, E_v)$ where $V_v = V \setminus \{v\}$, and $E_v = \{e' \subseteq e \in E \mid e' = e \cap V_v, \forall e \in E\}$. For hypergraph G, this is equivalent to the $G_0 \wedge G_1$.

Definition 2.2.6. Let $H = (V, E)$ be a hypergraph and $v \in V$ be a vertex. The *deletion subhypergraph* of v is defined as the subhypergraph $H \setminus v = (V_v, E_v)$ where $V_v = V \setminus \{v\}$, and $E_v = \{e \in E \mid v \notin e\}$.

Example 2.2.7. Consider the hypergraph $H = (V, E)$ where $V = \{v_1, v_2, v_3, v_4\}$ and $E = \{\{v_1, v_2\}, \{v_2, v_3, v_4\}, \{v_1, v_3\}\}$.

Let $V' = V \setminus \{v_1\}$ be a subset of vertices. The contraction $H/v = (V', E/v_1)$ is given by $V' = V \setminus \{v\}$ and:

$$E/v_1 = \{\{v_2\}, \{v_2, v_3, v_4\}, \{v_3\}\},$$

where each edge in E/v_1 is the intersection of an edge in E with V'. The deletion $H \setminus v_1 = (V', E \setminus v_1)$ is given by :

$$E \setminus v_1 = \{\{v_2, v_3, v_4\}\},$$

where $E \setminus v_1$ consists of edges from E that do not contain v_1.

Suppose, $H = (V, E)$ is a Sperner hypergraph, where $v \in V$. H/v is the v induced contraction subhypergraph. H/v does not necessarily retain the Sperner property. However, the v induced deletion subhypergraph $H \setminus v$ is just a set of edges not containing v. Thus, their Sperner property is retained.

2.3 FK-A Bound

Bound on Hyperedge Size

In the base operation of FK-A, Proposition 2.2.4 ensures that transversal hypergraphs contain hyperedges of logarithmic length (in terms of the number of vertices). Using this property, the size of hyperedges can be bounded by the following result:

Corollary 2.3.1. *Let G and H be mutually transversal hypergraphs, where $n = |G| + |H|$, and let $s = \min\{|e_l| : e_l \in E(G) \cup E(H)\}$ represent the length of the shortest hyperedge. Then:*

$$s \geq \log n, \quad \textit{since } n \cdot 2^{-s} = (|G| + |H|) \cdot 2^{-s} \geq 1.$$

[FK96]

Bound on Vertex Frequency

Both Proposition 2.2.4 and Corollary 2.3.1 establish bounds on the frequency of the most frequent vertex (MFV). This is formalized as follows:

Lemma 2.3.2. *For transversal hypergraphs G and H, with $|G| \cdot |H| \geq 1$ and $n = |G| + |H|$, there exists a vertex $v_i \in V(G) = V(H)$ with frequency:*

$$\epsilon(v_i) \geq \frac{1}{\log n}.$$

[FK96]

These bounds provide a lower limit on the performance of `FK-A`. Identifying better upper bounds is an open challenge, particularly for hypergraph classes where `FK-A` struggles.

Observation 2.3.3. *The bounds in Corollary 2.3.1 and Lemma 2.3.2 are tight up to a factor of 2. There exist transversal hypergraph pairs with arbitrarily large n such that:*

$$s = \min\{|e_l| : e_l \in E(G) \cup E(H)\} \geq \frac{\log n}{2}, \quad \textit{and}$$

$$\max\left(\epsilon_i^G, \epsilon_i^H\right) < \frac{2}{\log n}, \quad \textit{for any } i = 1, \ldots, n.$$

[FK96]

Bound on Number of Subproblems

In each recursive step, `FK-A` splits the problem into two smaller subproblems, denoted **L** and **R**. The algorithm's running time is bounded (up to a factor of $n^{\mathcal{O}(1)}$) by the total number of recursive calls, denoted $\alpha(G, H)$. The following lemma establishes this bound:

Lemma 2.3.4. *For hypergraphs G and H:*

$$\alpha(G, H) \leq n^{4 \log^2 n}.$$

[FK96]

These results lead to the first quasi-polynomial bound for solving `Trans-Hyp` using `FK-A`, as described in [FK96]:

Theorem 2.3.5. *`Trans-Hyp` for G and H can be solved in:*

$$n^{4 \cdot \chi(n) + \mathcal{O}(1)} \textit{ time, where } \chi(n)^{\chi(n)} = n \textit{ and } \chi(n) \sim \log \log n = \mathcal{O}(\log n).$$

This result implies that solving `Trans-Hyp` is possible within $\mathcal{O}(\log n)$ time, which corresponds to the bound for FK-B. Additionally, given a hypergraph G and a proper subhypergraph of its transversal hypergraph H, denoted $H^c \subseteq H$, a new hyperedge $e_i \in H \setminus H^c$

can be generated in incremental time:

$$n^{4\cdot\chi(n)+\mathcal{O}(1)}.$$

Chapter 3

Hypergraph Symmetry and FK-A Recursion

3.1 Symmetries in Hypergraphs

Definition 3.1.1. A *permutation* of the vertex set V of a hypergraph $H = (V, E)$ is a bijection of V. A *permutation group* $\mathcal{G}$ on H is a set of permutations $\alpha, \omega, \chi, \gamma, \ldots$ of V such that:

1. $\mathcal{G}$ contains the trivial permutation.
2. $\mathcal{G}$ contains α^{-1} for every $\alpha \in \mathcal{G}$, where $\alpha^{-1}(\alpha(v)) = v$ for all $v \in V$.
3. $\mathcal{G}$ is closed under composition: $(\alpha \circ \omega)(v) = \alpha(\omega(v))$ for all $\alpha, \omega \in \mathcal{G}$ and $v \in V$.

Each $\alpha \in \mathcal{G}$ maps edges $e \in E(H)$ to edges $\alpha(e) = \{\alpha(v) \mid v \in e\}$, and non-edges to non-edges, preserving the structure of H.

Definition 3.1.2. Two hypergraphs $H = (V, E)$ and $H' = (V', E')$ are *isomorphic* if there exists a bijection $\lambda : V \to V'$ such that for every edge $e \in E$, the image $\lambda(e) = \{\lambda(v) \mid v \in e\}$ is an edge in E'. Formally,

$$H \cong H' \iff \exists \lambda : V \to V' \text{ bijective}, \ \forall e \in E, \ \lambda(e) \in E'.$$

Definition 3.1.3. An *automorphism* of a hypergraph $H = (V, E)$ is an isomorphism from H to itself. The *automorphism group* $Aut(H)$ of H is the set of all automorphisms of H under composition.

Consider the hypergraphs G where $G = \{\{v_1, v_5, v_6\}, \{v_4, v_5, v_6\}, \{v_1, v_2\}, \{v_2, v_3, v_4\}\}$. The automorphism group of the hypergraph is : $Aut(H) = \langle (v_1 \ v_4), (v_5 \ v_6) \rangle$, which is isomorphic to $C_2 \times C_2$.

Most hypergraphs are asymmetric, meaning they lack nontrivial automorphisms. However, hypergraphs can exhibit localized symmetry in their induced subhypergraphs, even

when the global structure remains asymmetric. It is well known that while every abstract group can be realized as the full automorphism group of a graph, not every permutation group can. Hence, the question of whether a given permutation group $\mathcal{G}$ acting on $\{v_1, \ldots, v_n\}$ can serve as the automorphism group of a hypergraph with vertex set $\{v_1, \ldots, v_n\}$ has been extensively studied and classified for some class of groups. Whether the existence of such symmetries plays any role in the `FK-A` performance remains unknown.

Definition 3.1.4. Given a graph or hypergraph $H = (V, E)$ and an automorphism group $\mathcal{G}$ acting on the vertex set V, the *orbit* of a vertex $v \in V$ under $\mathcal{G}$ is the set:

$$O(v) = \{g(v) \mid g \in \mathcal{G}\}$$

consisting of all vertices that v can be mapped to by the automorphisms in $\mathcal{G}$.

Definition 3.1.5. A *partition* of the vertex set V of a hypergraph $H = (V, E)$ is a collection of disjoint subsets $V_1, V_2, \ldots, V_k$ such that:

$$V = \bigcup_{i=1}^{k} V_i \quad \text{and} \quad V_i \cap V_j = \emptyset \text{ for all } i \neq j.$$

Each subset V_i is called a *partition class*.

Each orbit partitions the vertex set V into equivalence classes permuted by automorphisms $g \in Aut(H)$. Nontrivial vertex permutations are referred to as automorphism *generators* when they are elements of the automorphism group that generate all other group elements under composition. The set of generators, through their action on the vertex set V, precisely determine and generate the orbits.

Claim 3.1.6. *The vertex sets of the subhypergraphs of H under the automorphism group $\mathcal{G} = Aut(H)$ are precisely the orbits of the action of $\mathcal{G}$ on V. [Cha]*

Proof. Let $O(v_i) = \{\sigma(v_i) \mid \sigma \in \mathcal{G}\}$ be the orbit of a vertex $v_i \in V$ under the action of $\mathcal{G}$. By definition, the orbit $O(v_i)$ is closed under the action of $\mathcal{G}$ since, for any $\sigma, \tau \in \mathcal{G}$ and $v_j \in O(v_i)$ with $v_j = \sigma(v_i)$, we have $\tau(v_j) = \tau(\sigma(v_i)) = (\tau \circ \sigma)(v_i) \in O(v_i)$. Thus, $O(v_i)$ forms a stable subset under $\mathcal{G}$, and the vertices of $O(v_i)$ define a subhypergraph of H.

Conversely, let $S \subseteq V$ be the vertex set of a subhypergraph of H under $\mathcal{G}$. Since S is closed under the automorphisms in $\mathcal{G}$, for every $\sigma \in \mathcal{G}$ and $s \in S$, we have $\sigma(s) \in S$. For any vertex $s \in S$, its orbit $O(s) = \{\sigma(s) \mid \sigma \in \mathcal{G}\}$ is entirely contained within S, as S is closed under the action. Furthermore, S must be a union of orbits because it cannot partially include any orbit without violating closure under $\mathcal{G}$.

Therefore, each orbit under $\mathcal{G}$ corresponds to a subhypergraph of H, and any subhypergraph is a union of orbits. Thus, the vertex sets of the subhypergraphs of H are precisely the orbits of the action of $\mathcal{G}$ on V. □

A permutation group $\mathcal{G}$ acts *transitively* on the vertices of a hypergraph $H = (V, E)$ if for any two vertices $u, v \in V$, there exists $g \in \mathcal{G}$ such that $g(u) = v$, ensuring uniform symmetry across V. A permutation group $\mathcal{G}$ of degree n is said to be *set-transitive* if any two subsets of the vertex set of same cardinality lie in the same orbit of $\mathcal{G}$. If $\mathcal{G}$ is set-transitive, then any $\mathcal{G}$-invariant hypergraph consists of either all or none of the k-subsets for all k, and its full automorphism group is the symmetric group S_n.

In contrast, an action of a permutation group $\mathcal{G}$ on a set V is *intransitive* if $\mathcal{G}$ does not act transitively on V, meaning there exist subsets of V that are not connected by the action of $\mathcal{G}$. In this case, V can be partitioned into orbits such that $\mathcal{G}$ acts transitively within each orbit but not across orbits.

Definition 3.1.7. Let $\mathcal{G}$ be a permutation group acting transitively on the vertex set V of a hypergraph $H = (V, E)$. A subset of vertices $B \subseteq V$ is called a *block* of $\mathcal{G}$ if, for every $g \in \mathcal{G}$, either $g(B) = B$ or $g(B) \cap B = \emptyset$. The blocks of $\mathcal{G}$ form a $\mathcal{G}$-invariant partition of V.

Definition 3.1.8. A transitive permutation group $\mathcal{G}$ acting on the vertices V of a hypergraph H is called *primitive* if its only blocks are V itself or singletons (i.e., individual vertices).

Definition 3.1.9. A transitive permutation group $\mathcal{G}$ acting on the vertices V of a hypergraph H is called *imprimitive* if it admits at least one block that is neither V nor a singleton, resulting in a non-trivial partition of V.

Now we can describe how these groups act on hypergraphs as their automorphism groups.

Let $\mathcal{G}_1$ and $\mathcal{G}_2$ be the automorphism groups of hypergraphs $H_1 = (V_1, E_1)$ and $H_2 = (V_2, E_2)$, where V_1 and V_2 are disjoint vertex sets. The *direct product* $\mathcal{G}_1 \times \mathcal{G}_2$ acts on the combined hypergraph $H = (V_1 \cup V_2, E_1 \cup E_2)$, where $E_1 \cap E_2 = \emptyset$. The action is intransitive, as $\mathcal{G}_1$ and $\mathcal{G}_2$ independently permute vertices within V_1 and V_2, preserving the disjoint structure of the vertex sets.

For a hyperedge $e \in E$, we have:

$$((u_1, v_1), \ldots, (u_k, v_k)) \in e \text{ if and only if } (u_1, \ldots, u_k) \in E_1 \text{ and } (v_1, \ldots, v_k) \in E_2,$$

and the group action is defined as:

$$e^{\mathcal{G}}((u_1, v_1), \ldots, (u_k, v_k)) = (g_1(u_1, \ldots, u_k), g_2(v_1, \ldots, v_k)),$$

where $g_1 \in \mathcal{G}_1$ and $g_2 \in \mathcal{G}_2$.

Whereas the semidirect product $\mathcal{N} \rtimes_\theta \mathcal{K}$ generalizes this structure by combining two groups $\mathcal{N}$ and $\mathcal{K}$ with an additional homomorphism θ controlling how $\mathcal{K}$ acts on $\mathcal{N}$. When θ is trivial, the semidirect product reduces to the direct product. Within $\mathcal{G} = \mathcal{N} \rtimes_\theta \mathcal{K}$, the

subgroups $\mathcal{N}^* = \{(u, 1) \mid u \in \mathcal{N}\}$ and $\mathcal{K}^* = \{(1, x) \mid x \in \mathcal{K}\}$ are isomorphic to $\mathcal{N}$ and $\mathcal{K}$, respectively, and satisfy the properties:

- $\mathcal{G} = \mathcal{N}^*\mathcal{K}^*$,
- $\mathcal{N}^* \cap \mathcal{K}^* = \{(1, 1)\}$,
- $\mathcal{N}^* \lhd \mathcal{G}$.

The non-trivial blocks created by an imprimitive group capture localized symmetry within the hypergraph. Within each block, the vertices have an induced symmetry on them, defined by $\mathcal{G}$, but the symmetry does not extend uniformly across all vertices in the hypergraph. These localized symmetries create a hierarchical structure, with symmetries operating both within blocks and between blocks, leading to a modular or layered symmetry pattern in the hypergraph. [BCW24]

Definition 3.1.10. Let $\mathcal{G}_1$ and $\mathcal{G}_2$ be groups, where $\mathcal{G}_2$ acts on a set of vertices $V_1 \subseteq V$. Define $\mathcal{N} := \mathcal{G}_1^{V_1}$, the direct product of copies of $\mathcal{G}_1$ indexed by elements of V_1. For each $j \in \mathcal{G}_2$ and $n \in \mathcal{N}$, the map $(n_v)_{v \in V_1} \mapsto (n_{j^{-1}(v)})_{v \in V_1}$ defines an automorphism of $\mathcal{N}$. The homomorphism θ from $\mathcal{G}_2$ to $Aut(\mathcal{N})$ maps $j \in \mathcal{G}_2$ to this automorphism. The *wreath product* $\mathcal{G}_1 \wr \mathcal{G}_2$ is defined as the semidirect product $\mathcal{N} \rtimes_\theta \mathcal{G}_2$.

Let $\mathcal{G}_1$ act on $V_2 \subseteq V$ and $\mathcal{G}_2$ on $V_1 \subseteq V$. Then $\mathcal{G}_1 \wr \mathcal{G}_2$ acts on $V_2 \times V_1$ as:

$$(n, j) \cdot (v_2, v_1) := (n_{j(v_1)}(v_2), j(v_1)).$$

Imprimitive groups acting on the vertices of a hypergraph are subgroups of wreath products S_a Wr S_b, where $a, b > 1$ and $a \cdot b = |V|$, with the decomposition arising from the blocks of a $\mathcal{G}$-invariant partition. [ACS15]

The automorphism group of a hypergraph $H = (V, E)$, where $V = \{v_1, v_2, v_3, v_4\}$ and $E = \{\{v_1, v_2\}, \{v_2, v_3\}, \{v_3, v_4\}, \{v_4, v_1\}\}$. , denoted $Aut(H)$ is isomorphic to the dihedral group D_4. This group can be understood as a wreath product $S_2 \wr S_2$, where the base group permutes vertices within two pairs of diagonally opposite vertices, and the top group permutes these pairs. The action preserves the edge structure of the hypergraph, and the resulting group satisfies the same relations as D_4.

To understand how these symmetries act on the hypergraph, consider a hypergraph $H = (V, E)$ where the vertex set is $V = V_1 \cup V_2$ with disjoint subsets V_1 and V_2, and the edge set E contains hyperedges formed within and across V_1 and V_2.

The group $S_{V_1} \times S_{V_2}$ acts on V intransitively, as it permutes vertices independently within the disjoint subsets V_1 and V_2. Here, the orbits under the group action are precisely V_1 and V_2, and there is no symmetry linking the two subsets.

In contrast, the wreath product $S_{V_1} \wr S_{\{1,2\}}$ acts imprimitively on V. It preserves the partition of V into V_1 and V_2 as blocks, permuting vertices within each subset V_1 and V_2

while also allowing permutations that interchange the two subsets. This ensures transitivity over the entire vertex set V, while maintaining the block structure defined by V_1 and V_2.

When it comes to primitive groups being automorphism groups of hypergraphs, the alternating group $Alt(V)$ is not the automorphism group of any family of sets. For a hypergraph $H = (V, E)$, if $Alt(V) \leq Aut(H)$, then $Aut(H) = S_{|V|}$, which implies that $Alt(V)$ cannot be the automorphism group of any hypergraph. Therefore, set-transitive groups other than symmetric groups cannot be automorphism groups of hypergraphs. Babai and Cameron expanded on this and showed that except for the alternating groups and finitely many others, every primitive permutation group is the full automorphism group of an edge-transitive hypergraph [BC15]. Pablo Spiga has since classified all 15 exceptions to this result [Spi16].

3.2 Vertex Symmetry in Lower Recursion Levels of `FK-A`

Two hypergraphs G and H are considered distinct if they are not isomorphic. The number of distinct hypergraphs on n vertices is known as the Dedekind Number, denoted $D(n)$. These numbers area topic of interest in combinatorics and lattice theory. They grow rapidly and are challenging to compute (for example, the 9th Dedekind number was determined in 2023 by two independent groups [Cro23]). In the context of hypergraph structures and their symmetries, our focus lies on equivalence classes of distinct hypergraphs under the action of automorphism groups. Specifically, [SY14] introduces the equivalence relation $\sim$ to classify hypergraphs invariant under the same automorphism group, defining $R(n)$ as the number of such equivalence classes. Each class represents a unique hypergraph invariant under a symmetric group acting as its automorphism group, restricted to Sperner hypergraphs on n vertices.

n	$R(n)$
0	2
1	3
2	5
3	10
4	30
5	210
6	16,353

Table 3.1: Number of total permutations of hypergraphs on n vertices. (`A003182`, [SY14])

n	Dedekind Number $d(n)$
0	2
1	3
2	6
3	20
4	168
5	7,581
6	7,828,354
7	2,414,682,040,998
8	56,130,437,228,687,557,907,788
9	286,386,577,668,298,411,128,469,151,667,598,498,812,366

Table 3.2: The first nine Dedekind Numbers $d(n)$.

We are interested in analyzing small cases of distinct hypergraphs, as these are the lower nodes in the recursion tree of FK-A. Understanding the symmetry groups associated with these lower-level hypergraphs is crucial for determining how the FK-A algorithm decomposes hypergraphs, as well as how their symmetries affect this process. These hypergraphs represent inputs for lower levels of the recursion tree, and exploring their automorphism groups helps clarify how hypergraph symmetry influences FK-A decomposition.

We analyze the recursion tree produced by FK-A with input hypergraphs on up to four vertices. Recall that there are 20, 168, and 7581 distinct hypergraphs on 3, 4, and 5 vertices, respectively. Since hypergraphs for FK-A come in transversal pairs, we consider only one of the hypergraphs of each pair whenever they are distinct. To keep consistency, let us denote G as the hypergraph with either more edges or, in cases where they have an equal number of edges, smaller edges (smaller order of edges) than H. All hypergraphs discussed are assumed to be Sperner. We are using the notation from [SS24].

The automorphism groups associated with these hypergraphs offer an effective way of categorizing hypergraphs under symmetry actions. To further classify the hypergraphs on up to four vertices, we examine the unique hypergraph structures based on the automorphism groups found. The automorphism groups include symmetric groups S_n, direct product structures such as $S_2 \times S_2$, and other notable groups like the dihedral group D_4. Below, we categorize the hypergraphs based on their automorphism groups.

Terminal Hypergraphs in FK-A

In the FK-A decomposition, on 0 vertices, the only possibility is $D_{1,0} : \{\{v_1\}\}, \{\emptyset\}$, i.e., $G = 1, H = 0$. This is terminal in FK-A canonically, forming the leaf nodes in the recursion tree. For hypergraphs on 1 vertex, there can be no more than 1 edge, and each edge must have a length of at most 1. Thus, all hypergraphs on 1 vertex are also terminal in FK-A, appearing as leaf nodes in the recursion tree. Specifically, we either have $G = H = v_i$, which corresponds to $D_{1,1} : \{\{v_1\}\}, \{\{v_1\}\}$, or we have $D_{1,0}$. In a very naive implementation of FK-A, the recursion terminates at $D_{0,1}$, $D_{1,0}$, or $D_{1,1}$ as end points. The optimized implementation used for this thesis includes additional structures such as $D_{1,k}$ or $D_{k,1}$, where $k \geq 2$. In the naive case, it requires an extra $k - 1$ steps to reach $D_{1,1}$. Since when G and H are transversals, $Aut(G) \cong Aut(H)$, considering the automorphism structure of just one of them is sufficient. In general, on n vertices we have $Aut(D_{1,1}) \cong S_{n-1}$. $D_{1,1}$ is also the trivial case of self-transversal hypergraphs.

Below, we describe the distinct hypergraph structures and their automorphism groups.

Hypergraphs G with $Aut(G) \cong S_2$

On 2 vertices, we have $D_{2,1} : \{\{v_1\}, \{v_2\}\}, \{\{v_1, v_2\}\}$ with the automorphism group S_2, which as discussed above, is terminal in a modified implementation of the algorithm and is a leaf node on the generated tree, but is not the case in the naive implementation. On n

vertices, $Aut(D_{2,1}) \cong S_2 \times S_{n-2}$. In general $Aut(D_{m,1}) \cong S_m \times S_{n-m}$ (for $m < n$). Picking a vertex and recursing on it gives either a $D_{1,0}$ or a $D_{1,1}$. One can easily see that these are the only possibilities for hypergraphs on 2 vertices, for we can have at most 2 edges, and each edges can have at most 1 vertex.

On 3 vertices, the automorphism group S_2 occurs in the hypergraph we denote as St_2: $\{\{v_1\}, \{v_2, v_3\}\}, \{\{v_1, v_2\}, \{v_1, v_3\}\}$ (see Figure 3.1). Since $S_1 \times S_2 \cong S_2$, St_2 also inherits the automorphism group S_2 like $D_{1,1}$. In general, on n vertices, $Aut(St_m) \cong S_{n-m-1} \times S_m$, where $S_0 = Id$, the identity group (trivial permutation of vertices). We can observe this in the case of St_2, where $S_2 \cong \mathbb{Z}_2$.

The maximum size of an `FK-A` recursion tree for any hypergraph on 3 vertices is 3, because all hypergraphs of size at most 2 are on nodes on depth level at most 2. On St_2, choosing v_1 as the splitting vertex, results in two smaller hypergraphs on 2 vertices: $D_{1,2}$ on one recursion, and $D_{1,0}$ on the other. Therefore we end up with a tree of size 3. Choosing v_2 or v_3 as the splitting vertex instead, gives us two instances of the form $D_{1,1}$ and $D_{2,1}$.

Now, on 4 vertices, we denote the hypergraphs with automorphism group isomorphic to S_2 as

$$P_{n_3} : \{\{v_2, v_1\}\}, \{\{v_3, v_1\}, \{v_4, v_1\}, \{v_3, v_4\}\}, \{\{v_1, v_3\}, \{v_1, v_4\}, \{v_4, v_3, v_2\}\},$$

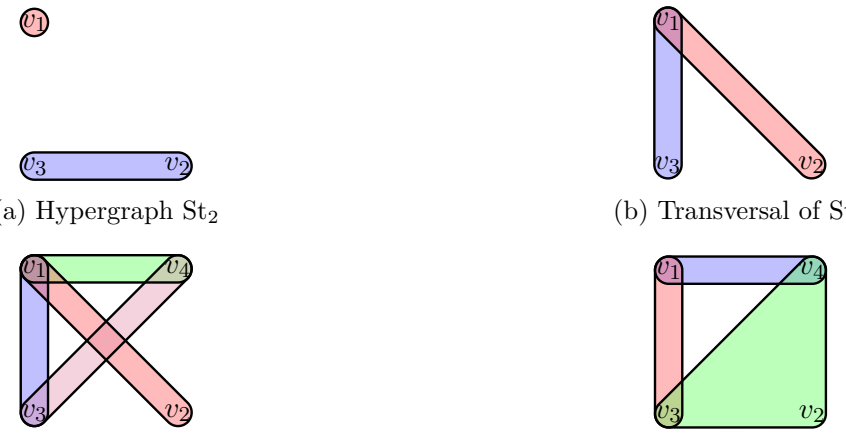
$$\overline{P_{n_3}} : \{\{v_3, v_2\}, \{v_4, v_3\}, \{v_1\}\}, \{\{v_1, v_2\}, \{v_1, v_3, v_4\}\},$$

$$P_4 : \{\{v_1, v_3\}, \{v_2, v_3\}, \{v_2, v_4\}, \{v_1, v_2\}\}, \{\{v_1, v_2\}, \{v_2, v_3\}, \{v_3, v_4\}\}.$$

The group S_2 represents a simple permutation or "involution" between pairs of vertices. The maximum number of nodes on the `FK-A` recursion tree for hypergraphs on 4 vertices is at most 7, with a maximum depth of 3. At each recursion, the algorithm removes one vertex, and so, in the worst case, after the first recursion, we end up with two nontrivial instances of hypergraphs on 3 vertices, which as discussed above have 3 nodes.

Now let's consider $\overline{Pn_3}$ (see Figure 3.2) . Since v_1 occurs in an edge of length 1, any automorphism of the hypergraph must leave it invariant. Since $\{v_1, v_2\}$ is the only edge of length 2 in the corresponding transversal hypergraph, we must have v_2 fixed as well. We, therefore, get the automorphism group $\langle (v_2, v_3) \rangle \cong S_2$, and since complementary graphs have the same automorphism group, $Aut(Pn_3) \cong S_2$ as well.

$Aut(P_4) \cong S_2$ and in fact, the same is true for all similar paths P_n (see Figure 3.5). In P_4, v_2 and v_3 are frequent with frequency $\frac{2}{3}$ but v_1 and v_4 have a frequency of only $\frac{1}{3}$ and are infrequent since the threshold is $\frac{1}{\log_2 6}$. Choosing the most frequent vertices v_3 or v_2 results in an instance of $D_{2,1}$ and another of $D_{1,2}$, resulting in a tree with 3 nodes at the least, and up to 7 nodes. On the other hand, choosing v_1 or v_4 gets us two cases of St_2 and therefore generates a tree with 7 nodes. The hypergraph P_4, while not self-transversal explicitly, has another permutationally equivalent instance of P_4.



(a) Hypergraph St_2 (b) Transversal of St_2

(c) Hypergraph Pn_3 (d) Transversal of Pn_3

Figure 3.1: Hypergraphs St_2 and Pn_3 and their transversals.

In $\overline{Pn_3}$, the frequencies of v_1, v_2, v_3, and v_4 are 1, $\frac{2}{3}$, $\frac{1}{2}$, and $\frac{1}{2}$, respectively. We see that all vertices of the hypergraph are above the frequency threshold of `FK-A` with v_1 being the most frequent. Choosing v_1 gives an instance of St_2 and $D_{1,0}$, whereas choosing v_2 gives instances of $D_{1,1}$ and interestingly, $D_{3,1} : \{\{v_1\}, \{v_2\}, \{v_3\}\}, \{\{v_1, \mathbf{v_2}, v_3\}\}$, and choosing v_4 or v_3 gives St_2 and $D_{2,1}$. While the hypergraph has the automorphism group S_2, decomposition can change it's automorphism group to S_3, giving us an instance of gaining symmetry in `FK-A` decomposition.

Lastly, in Pn_3, v_1, v_4, and v_3 are frequent (as defined by `FK-A` preconditions) with frequency $\frac{2}{3}$, while v_2 is considered infrequent and has frequency $\frac{1}{3}$ (see Figure 3.1). Here, removing v_1 gives optimal results, with an instance of $D_{1,2}$ and an instance of $D_{3,1}$. Choosing v_2, which is excluded by all but the most basic rule, produces the worst-case performance by instantiating K_3 and St_2. Choosing v_4 or v_3 gives 5 nodes with St_2 and $D_{2,1}$.

Hypergraphs G with $Aut(G) \cong S_3$

Up 3 vertices, hypergraphs such as $D_{1,1}$, $D_{3,1} : \{\{v_1\}, \{v_2\}, \{v_3\}\}, \{\{v_1, \mathbf{v_2}, v_3\}\}$, and $K_3 : \{\{v_1, \mathbf{v_2}\}, \{v_1, v_3\}, \{v_2, v_3\}\}$ have automorphism groups isomorphic to S_3. Additionally, on 4 vertices, hypergraphs denoted

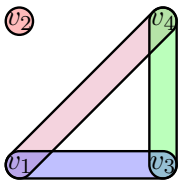
$$St_3 : \{\{v_1, v_2\}, \{v_1, v_3\}, \{v_1, v_4\}\}, \{\{v_1\}, \{v_2, v_3, v_4\}\},$$

$$hw_3 : \{\{v_1, v_4\}, \{v_2, v_4\}, \{v_3, v_4\}, \{v_1, v_2, v_3\}\}, \{\{v_1, v_4\}, \{v_2, v_4\}, \{v_3, v_4\}, \{v_1, v_2, v_3\}\},$$

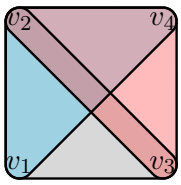
$$K_3^{\cdot} : \{\{v_2\}, \{v_1, v_3\}, \{v_2, v_4\}, \{v_3, v_4\}\}, \{\{v_1, v_2, v_3, v_4\}\}.$$

also have S_3 as their automorphism group.

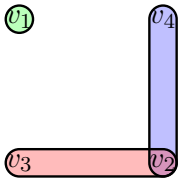
In St_3, vertices v_2, v_3, and v_4 are frequent with frequency $\frac{1}{2}$, and v_1 is most frequent as it occurs in all edges (see Figure 3.3). Removing v_1 results in a trivial instance of $D_{0,1}$ and



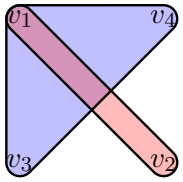
(a) Hypergraph K_3^-



(b) Transversal of K_3^-



(c) Hypergraph $\overline{\mathrm{Pn}_3}$



(d) Transversal of $\overline{\mathrm{Pn}_3}$

Figure 3.2: Hypergraph K_3^- and its transversal. Hypergraph $\overline{\mathrm{Pn}_3}$ and its transversal.

$D_{3,1}$, while removing other vertices yields subhypergraphs isomorphic to St_2 or $D_{1,1}$. The first case results in a recursion tree with 3 nodes, whereas the latter ends up with 5 nodes.

Similarly, we see that in hw_3 (see Figure 3.5), v_1, v_2, and v_3 are frequent with frequency $\frac{1}{2}$ (*frequent* in the context of multiple vertices having the same frequency and there existing a separate most frequent vertex) and v_4 is most frequent with frequency $\frac{3}{4}$. Recursing on v_4 results in an instance of $D_{1,3}$, and an instance of $D_{3,1}$, thus the recursion tree of our modified implementation has 3 nodes. Choosing any other vertex leads to two instances of St_2, which has 3 nodes. So, the maximum size of the recursion tree is 7 nodes.

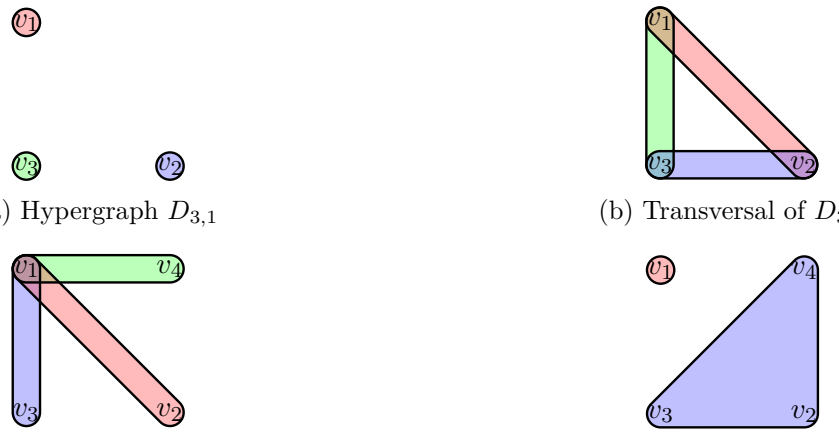
The hypergraph K_3^- is defined as a cycle C_3 together with a singleton vertex (see Figure 3.2). The vertex v_2 is most frequent with frequency 1, and the other vertices are frequent with a frequency of $\frac{2}{3}$. Removing v_2 gives $D_{0,1}$ and K_3 for a recursion tree with 5 nodes. Choosing any of the other vertices gives instances of $D_{1,3}$ and St_2, which again, results in a tree with 5 nodes.

Lastly, K_3 is invariant under any permutation and in general $Aut(K_n) \cong S_n$ (see Figure 3.4). Selecting v_1 as the splitting vertex, we get two cases of $D_{1,2}$, which are trivial due to our modifications, and once again we have a tree of size 3. Another interesting observation is that both K_3 and hw_3 are also self-transversal hypergraphs. In fact, the next well-known self-transversal hypergraph is on 7 vertices, namely the fano plane hypergraph, which is identified as a difficult case for `FK-A`.

Hypergraphs G with $Aut(G) \cong S_2 \times S_2$

Hypergraphs on 4 vertices with automorphism group isomorphic to $S_2 \times S_2$ are denoted as $D_{2,1}$,

$K_4^- : \{\{v_3, v_4\}, \{v_1, v_4\}, \{v_1, v_3\}, \{v_2, v_4\}, \{v_2, v_3\}\}, \{\{v_1, v_2, v_3, v_4\}, \{v_1, v_2, v_4\}, \{v_1, v_3, v_4\}\},$



(a) Hypergraph $D_{3,1}$ (b) Transversal of $D_{3,1}$

(c) Hypergraph St_3 (d) Transversal of St_3

Figure 3.3: Hypergraph $D_{3,1}$ and its transversal. Hypergraph St_3 and its transversal.

$$K_2^{\cdot\cdot} : \{\{v_1, v_2\}, \{v_3, v_4\}\}, \{\{v_1, v_2\}, \{v_3, v_4\}\}.$$

The symmetry of hypergraphs $K_2^{\cdot\cdot}$ and K_4^- is generated by permutations like $\langle (v_1, v_2), (v_3, v_4) \rangle$, i.e., we can either permute (v_1, v_2) or (v_3, v_4) or both.

K_4^- is a complete graph on 4 vertices missing one edge, where all vertices have maximum frequency $\frac{2}{3}$ (see Figure 3.4). Recursing on any vertex leads to hypergraphs such as K_3 and $D_{2,1}$, resulting in a recursion tree with 5 nodes.

$K_2^{\cdot\cdot}$ is the complete graph K_2 with two singleton vertices, with its transversal hypergraph having 2 edges each containing 3 vertices (see Figure 3.6). v_1 and v_2 are most frequent with frequency 1, and v_3 and v_4 are frequent with frequency $\frac{1}{2}$. Choosing v_3 or v_4 gives an instance of $D_{3,1}$ and $D_{2,1}$, which results in 3 nodes in the recursion tree, while choosing v_1 or v_2 gives rise to St_2 and $D_{1,0}$, for a total of 5 nodes. Interestingly, in this case, choosing the vertex with the highest frequency is not optimal in terms of tree size.

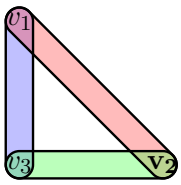
Hypergraphs G with $Aut(G) \cong D_4$

The cycle graph $C_4 : \{\{v_1, v_3\}, \{v_2, v_3\}, \{v_2, v_4\}, \{v_1, v_2\}\}, \{\{v_1, v_2\}, \{v_2, v_3\}, \{v_3, v_4\}\}$ is invariant under both rotation and reflection, leading to the automorphism group D_4 (see Figure 3.6). All vertices in C_4 are frequent, with no distinct most frequent vertex. Like K_n, each vertex is isomorphic, implying that removing any vertex gives isomorphic hypergraphs. Choosing any vertex produces an instance of St_2 and an instance of $D_{2,1}$, totaling five nodes in the tree.

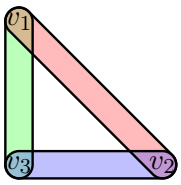
Hypergraphs G with $Aut(G) \cong S_4$

The hypergraphs

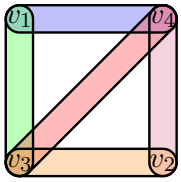
$$D_{4,1} : \{\{v_1\}, \{v_2\}, \{v_3\}, \{v_4\}\}, \{\{\mathbf{v_1}, \mathbf{v_2}, \mathbf{v_3}, \mathbf{v_4}\}\},$$



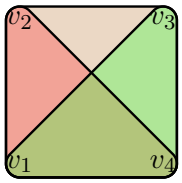
(a) Hypergraph K_3



(b) Transversal of K_3



(c) Hypergraph K_4^-



(d) Transversal of K_4^-

Figure 3.4: Hypergraph K_3 and its transversal. Hypergraph K_4^- and its transversal.

$$K_4 : \{\{v_1, v_2\}, \{v_2, v_3\}, \{v_2, v_4\}, \{v_1, v_3\}, \{v_3, v_4\}, \{v_1, v_4\}\}, \{\{v_1, v_2, v_3, v_4\}, \{v_1, v_2, v_4, v_3\}, \{v_1, v_3, v_2, v_4\}\}.$$

and $D_{1,0}$ are invariant under any permutation. Consequently, their automorphism group is isomorphic to S_4.

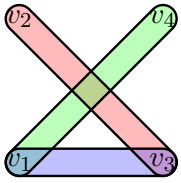
Specifically, K_4 has complete symmetry with respect to permutations, and all vertices have frequency $\frac{3}{4}$. Therefore, choosing any splitting vertex during recursion results in two instances of K_3 and $D_{3,1}$, yielding a recursion tree with five nodes.

Altogether, up to 4 vertices, there are 13 pairs of distinct hypergraphs, for a total of 30 equivalence classes i.e. distinct hypergraphs under permutation (see Table 3.1). There are in total 168 distinct hypergraphs on 4 vertices (see Table 3.2), which are all permutations of the abovementioned structures. By elementary group theory, the number of different permutations of these hypergraphs is $\frac{24}{|G|}$, where G is the automorphism group of the given hypergraph. There are $\binom{4}{k}$ permutations for $D_{k,1}$, $\binom{4}{3} \cdot 4 = 12$ permutations for St_2, and 4 permutations for St_3 and hw_3. Similarly, there are $\binom{4}{3}$ permutations for K_3, 6 for K_4^-, and 1 permutation for K_4. The cycle C_4 has 3 permutations and $K_2^{\cdot\cdot}$ also has 6, while $K_3^{\cdot}$ has 4 permutations. P_4 has 12 permutations. Finally, Pn_3 and $\overline{Pn_3}$ are complementary graphs and both have 12 permutations. Adding these numbers up and taking note of self-transversal cases indeed gives us the 168 distinct hypergraphs.

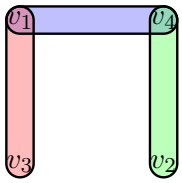
The hypergraphs according to these symmetry groups are grouped in the following table:

$D_{4,1}, K_4, D_{1,0}$	S_4
C_4	D_4
$D_{1,1}, D_{3,1}, \text{star}_3, hw_3, K_3, K_3^{\cdot}$	S_3
$D_{2,1}, K_4^-, K_2^{\cdot\cdot}$	$S_2 \times S_2$
$\text{star}_2, \text{pan}_3, \text{pan}_3', \text{path}_4$	S_2

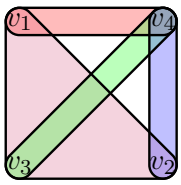
Table 3.3: Hypergraphs grouped by their automorphism groups.



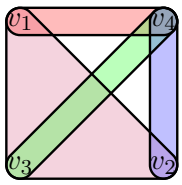
(a) Hypergraph P_4



(b) Transversal of P_4

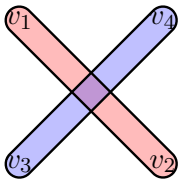


(c) Hypergraph hw_3

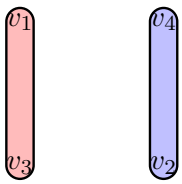


(d) Transversal of hw_3

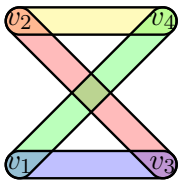
Figure 3.5: Hypergraph P_4 and its transversal. Hypergraph hw_3 and its transversal.



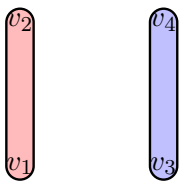
(a) Hypergraph $K_2^{\cdot\cdot}$



(b) Transversal of $K_2^{\cdot\cdot}$

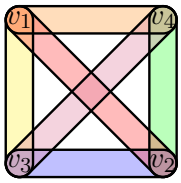


(c) Hypergraph C_4

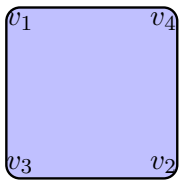


(d) Transversal of C_4

Figure 3.6: Hypergraph $K_2^{\cdot\cdot}$ and its transversal. Hypergraph C_4 and its transversal.



(a) Hypergraph K_4



(b) Transversal of K_4

Figure 3.7: Hypergraph K_4 and its transversal.

3.3 Impact of FK-A on Symmetry

We can understand how the symmetry within the hypergraph gets impacted when FK-A decomposes and recurses on input hypergraphs G, H to test whether they are mutually transversals or not from the following discussion.

Lemma 3.3.1. *Suppose $Aut(H) = \mathcal{G}$ for a hypergraph H and its transversal hypergraph is denoted $Tr(H)$. Then $Aut(Tr(H)) \cong \mathcal{G}$.*

Proof. Suppose not. Let $\mathcal{G}' = Aut(Tr(H))$, and assume $\mathcal{G} \neq \mathcal{G}'$. Then there exists an automorphism ϕ such that either $\phi \in \mathcal{G}$ but $\phi \notin \mathcal{G}'$, or $\phi \in \mathcal{G}'$ but $\phi \notin \mathcal{G}$.

Suppose $\phi \in \mathcal{G}$ but $\phi \notin \mathcal{G}'$. Since $\phi \in \mathcal{G}$, it preserves the edge structure of H, mapping each hyperedge $e \in E(H)$ to another hyperedge $\phi(e) \in E(H)$. Now, for any minimal transversal $t \in Tr(H)$, $\phi(t)$ intersects every hyperedge $\phi(e)$ of H, and as ϕ is a bijection, $\phi(t)$ remains minimal. Thus, $\phi(t) \in Tr(H)$, implying $\phi \in \mathcal{G}'$, which contradicts the assumption.

A similar argument applies if $\phi \in \mathcal{G}'$ but $\phi \notin \mathcal{G}$. Hence, $\mathcal{G} = \mathcal{G}'$. □

Lemma 3.3.2. *In FK-A, the recursive decomposition on the most frequent vertex v_i eliminates all symmetries associated with v_i in the hypergraphs H and $Tr(H)$ by ensuring that any automorphism generators including v_i are removed. As a result, all nontrivial automorphism generators that include v_i are removed.*

Proof. Let $H = (V, E)$ and $Tr(H) = (V, E')$ be Sperner hypergraphs with a common vertex set V, where $E = \{e_1, e_2, \dots\}$ and $E' = \{t_1, t_2, \dots\}$ represent the edge sets of H and $Tr(H)$, respectively. Suppose $|H| \cdot |Tr(H)| \geq 2$, and let v_i be the most frequent vertex, occurring in either H or $Tr(H)$ with frequency at least $\frac{1}{\log(|H|+|Tr(H)|)}$. Assume there exists a nontrivial automorphism generator σ acting on both H and $Tr(H)$.

By definition, σ is an automorphism generator, creating other automorphisms through composition, and it induces a permutation of vertices that forms nontrivial orbits within V. These orbits represent structural dependencies among vertices, as vertices within the same orbit are indistinguishable under the automorphisms generated by σ. The FK-A decomposition selects v_i, the most frequent vertex, and deletes it, effectively breaking the generator σ.

If v_i is part of multiple automorphism generators, its removal disrupts the composition of these generators. Specifically, for a generator such as $(ab)(cd)$, deleting $v_i = a$ removes a from the orbit, effectively separating the generator into (cd). This action breaks the combined structure of the generators, rendering automorphisms generated through their composition invalid. As a result, all symmetries dependent on v_i collapse, ensuring that no nontrivial automorphisms involving v_i remain in the decomposed hypergraphs. □

Lemma 3.3.3. *Let H and $Tr(H)$ be transversal hypergraphs with vertex set V. Suppose v_i and v_j are distinct vertices of H, and let σ be an automorphism generator of H. If*

v_i and v_j do not belong to the same transposition of vertices within σ, deleting v_i does not affect symmetries involving v_j. Specifically, if $\sigma \cong \langle (v_i\, v_k)(v_j\, v_m) \rangle$, removing v_i breaks transpositions involving v_i, such as $(v_i v_k)$ from all automorphisms in $Aut(H)$, but leaves other transpositions like $(v_j v_m)$ intact, preserving symmetries associated with v_j.

Proof. Let $H = (V, E)$ and $Tr(H) = (V, E')$ be Sperner hypergraphs that are transversal to each other. Consider distinct vertices v_i and v_j in V, and let σ be an automorphism generator of H. The relationship between v_i and v_j within σ can be described as the following:

If v_i and v_j are in the same transposition within σ, such as $\sigma \cong \langle (v_i\, v_j) \rangle$, removing v_i directly breaks the transposition $(v_i\, v_j)$. This action invalidates all automorphisms involving both v_i and v_j, as their symmetry depends entirely on the transposition $(v_i\, v_j)$. The decomposition, therefore, eliminates all symmetries related to v_j in this case.

If v_i and v_j are in different transpositions within the same generator, such as $\sigma \cong \langle (v_i\, v_k)(v_j\, v_m) \rangle$, the transpositions $(v_i\, v_k)$ and $(v_j\, v_m)$ are independent. Removing v_i invalidates all automorphisms generated by $(v_i\, v_k)$ but does not affect the ones generated by $(v_j\, v_m)$. In this case, the decomposition breaks automorphisms involving v_i while leaving all symmetries associated with v_j intact.

If v_i and v_j belong to different generators, such as $\sigma_1 \cong \langle (v_i\, v_k) \rangle$ and $\sigma_2 \cong \langle (v_j\, v_m) \rangle$, the automorphic structures of v_i and v_j are completely independent. Removing v_i affects only σ_1 by breaking $(v_i\, v_k)$, while σ_2 and its transposition $(v_j\, v_m)$ remain unaffected. The decomposition, in this case, does not impact the symmetries involving v_j.

Thus, in `FK-A` decomposition, removing v_i breaks symmetries involving v_i while preserving those associated with v_j, provided v_i and v_j are not part of the same transposition. □

Corollary 3.3.4. *Let $min(H)$ be the Sperner reduced hypergraph of H (1.1.3). Then $Aut(H) \cong Aut(min(H))$.*

Proof. Consider the Sperner reduced hypergraph $min(H) = (V, E)$. Let's show that if $\sigma \in Aut(H)$, then $\sigma \in Aut(min(H))$. By definition, $\sigma \in Aut(H)$ maps each hyperedge in $E(H)$ to another hyperedge in $E(H)$. For any $e_i \in E_{min}(H)$, $\sigma(e_i)$ must also belong to $E(H)$. Suppose $\sigma(e_i) \notin E_{min}(H)$; then there exists $e_j \in E(H)$ such that $e_j \subset \sigma(e_i)$. Applying σ^{-1}, this implies $\sigma^{-1}(e_j) \subset e_i$, contradicting the minimality of e_i in $min(H)$. Thus, $\sigma(e_i) \in E_{min}(H)$, proving that σ preserves minimal hyperedges, so $\sigma \in Aut(min(H))$.

Now, suppose that $\sigma \in Aut(min(H))$. Then, it ensures that σ maps each minimal hyperedge $e_i \in E_{min}(H)$ to another minimal hyperedge in $E_{min}(H)$. For any $e_i \in E(H)$, if $e_i \in E_{min}(H)$, then $\sigma(e_i) \in E_{min}(H) \subset E(H)$. If $e_i \notin E_{min}(H)$, e_i must be a superset of some $e_j \in E_{min}(H)$. Since σ preserves $E_{min}(H)$, $\sigma(e_j) \in E_{min}(H)$, making $\sigma(e_i)$ a superset of $\sigma(e_j)$ and ensuring $\sigma(e_i) \in E(H)$. Therefore, $\sigma(E(H)) = E(H)$, and $\sigma \in Aut(H)$.

Thus, $Aut(H) \cong Aut(min(H))$. □

3.4 Primal Graph of A Hypergraph and FK-A Recursion

Definition 3.4.1. The *primal graph* of a hypergraph $H = (V, E)$, denoted $G(H)$, is the graph with the same vertex set V, where two vertices $u, v \in V$ are adjacent if and only if they appear together in at least one hyperedge $e \in E$.

Primal graphs are also known as co-occurrence graphs, [2]-sections of hypergraphs, and Gaifman graphs in the literature [DPP18].

Definition 3.4.2. A hypergraph $H = (V, E(H))$ is *conformal* if every maximal clique in its primal graph $G(H)$ is a hyperedge of H.

For a conformal hypergraph $H = (V, E)$ and its primal graph $G(H)$, the clique hypergraph of $G(H)$ (**??**) is exactly H. Primal graph of a hypergraph represents the symmetric and structural properties of the hypergraph rather faithfully for conformal hypergraphs, as G is uniquely determined if and only if H is conformal. [GMR06]. Since for conformal hypergraphs, every maximal clique in G corresponds to a hyperedge in H, analyzing the cliques of G can reveal key properties about hypergraph. For general hypergraphs, the primal graph G does not uniquely determine it because multiple hypergraphs can share the same primal graph. The hyperedges of a general hypergraph may involve overlapping edges where the primal graph cannot distinguish the separate edges from the cliques of G.

With conformality, looking at the primal graph and how they they interact through the FK-A recursion can give us an insight into whether the induced subgraph preserved or display any characteristics through the decomposition. Graph minor operations are a well-known method to generate induced subgraphs from a graph. Generalizing this for hypergraphs, we get:

A hypergraph H' is a *minor* of H, denoted $H' \preceq H$, if H' is obtained by:

- Deleting a vertex.
- Deleting proper subhyperedges $e_j \subset e_i$, $e_i \in E(H)$.
- Shrinking a 2-edge (adjacent vertices in $G(H)$) into a single vertex.

For a pair of Sperner hypergraphs (F, H), the *contraction* (2.2.5) of $v \in V(F)$ results in:

$$F' = (V(F) \setminus \{v\}, \{e_i = e_j \setminus \{v\} \mid e_j \in E(F)\}),$$
$$H' = (V(F) \cap V(H) \setminus \{v\}, \{e_i = e_j \setminus \{v\} \mid e_j \in E(H) \cap V(F)\}).$$

If $V(F) = V(H) = V$, this simplifies to:

$$F' = (V \setminus \{v\}, \{e_i = e_j \setminus \{v\} \mid e_j \in E(F)\}),$$
$$H' = (V \setminus \{v\}, \{e_i = e_j \setminus \{v\} \mid e_j \in E(H)\}).$$

The *deletion* (2.2.6) of v results in:

$$F' = (V \setminus \{v\}, \{e_i \in E(F) \mid v \notin e_i\}),$$
$$H' = (V \setminus \{v\}, \{e_i = e_j \setminus \{v\} \mid e_j \in E(H)\}).$$

[BS15].

A **minor map** $\mu : F \to F'$ satisfies the following:

- $\mu(v) \cap \mu(u) = \emptyset$ for all distinct $u, v \in V(F)$,
- $\{v \in V(F) \mid \mu(v) \cap e_j \neq \emptyset\} \subseteq e_i$ or $\emptyset$, for some $e_i \in E(F)$, for all $e_j \in E(F')$.

$F' \preceq F$ if and only if there exists μ such that F' is formed as:

$$F' = \bigcup_{v \in V(F')} F[\mu(v)] \cup \bigcup_{e \in E(F)} \mu(e).$$

For hypergraph pairs (F, H) and (F', H'), $(F, H) \preceq (F', H')$ if and only if there exists a minor map $\mu : (F, H) \to (F', H')$.

Therefore, minor operations on a hypergraph H extends to its primal graph, denoted $G(H)$. However, the converse does not hold, as primal graphs do not fully preserve hypergraph structure.

Example 3.4.3. Let $H = (V, E)$ be a Sperner hypergraph where $V = \{v_1, v_2, v_3, v_4\}$ and $E = \{e_1, e_2, e_3\}$ with:

$$e_1 = \{v_1, v_2, v_3\}, \quad e_2 = \{v_2, v_4\}, \quad e_3 = \{v_3, v_4\}.$$

The primal graph $G(H)$ has vertex set V and edges:

$$\{v_1, v_2\}, \{v_1, v_3\}, \{v_2, v_3\}, \{v_2, v_4\}, \{v_3, v_4\}.$$

Consider the automorphism $\alpha \in Aut(G(H))$ defined as:

$$\alpha(v_1) = v_3, \quad \alpha(v_2) = v_2, \quad \alpha(v_3) = v_1, \quad \alpha(v_4) = v_4.$$

This permutation preserves adjacency in $G(H)$ but maps the hyperedges of H as:

$$\alpha(e_1) = \{v_3, v_2, v_1\}, \quad \alpha(e_2) = \{v_2, v_4\}, \quad \alpha(e_3) = \{v_1, v_4\}.$$

While α is valid in $G(H)$, it fails to preserve the hyperedge structure of H. Thus, $\alpha \in Aut(G(H))$, but $\alpha \notin Aut(H)$.

[AGT12] established the connection between hypergraph minors and their primal graphs with the following lemma:

Lemma 3.4.4. *For Sperner hypergraphs H, H', $H' \preceq H \iff (G(H'), H') \preceq (G(H), H)$.*

To illustrate this, let the hypergraphs $G^{\emptyset}$ and G^1 be defined as:

$$G^{\emptyset} = (V, \emptyset), \quad G^1 = (V, E(G^1)), \quad E(G^1) = \{\{v\} \mid v \in V\}.$$

Here, $G^{\emptyset}$ corresponds to the empty hypergraph, and G^1 corresponds to the singleton hypergraph, where each edge contains a single vertex. For any two graphs $G(H)$ and $G(H')$, the following equivalence holds:

$$G(H') \preceq G(H) \iff (G(H'), G(H')^{\emptyset}) \preceq (G(H), G(H)^{\emptyset}) \iff (G(H'), G(H')^1) \preceq (G(H), G(H)^1).$$

This demonstrates that hypergraph minor operations extend to their primal graphs. Therefore, we note the following:

Observation 3.4.5. *The `FK-A` recursive decomposition method induces a minor map between the primal graph of input hypergraphs and their induced subhypergraphs.*

The `FK-A` algorithm recursively decomposes input hypergraphs F and H into subproblems corresponding to the contraction and deletion subhypergraphs F' and H'. These operations extend to the primal graphs $G(F)$ and $G(H)$, resulting in the minors $G(F')$ and $G(H')$.

The decomposition proceeds until reaching end states: the empty graph $G^{\emptyset} = (V, \emptyset)$ and the singleton hypergraph $G^1 = (V, E(G^1))$, where $E(G^1) = \{\{v\} \mid v \in V\}$.

In the next chapters, we explore the primal graph structures of poorly performing hypergraph classes in `FK-A`, examining their symmetry and properties preserved during decomposition.

3.5 Symmetry in `FK-A` Recursion

`FK-A` recursion process involves a decomposition, creating two smaller subproblems. To understand the effect of this operation on the symmetric structure of the input hypergraphs, it suffices to analyze the symmetry of one of the input hypergraphs, say G. By transversality, the other hypergraph H will inherit symmetry restrictions from G. Depending on whether the input hypergraphs G and H have a nontrivial automorphism group and the choice of the vertex v_i, hypergraphs in `FK-A` recursion can gain symmetry, lose symmetry, or no changes in symmetry.

The minor operation $\mathbf{L}$ applied to G produces a subhypergraph G_1 by deleting a vertex v_i and all hyperedges incident to it while $\mathbf{R}$ contains $G_0 \vee G_1$. Looking at the symmetric changes in $\mathbf{L}$ on G to get G_1 is sufficient considering a similar operation can be described for H and H_1 which is the transversal of $G_0 \vee G_1$ and has the same symmetry. This operation can affect the automorphism group of G in three distinct ways:

First, the hypergraph can *gain* symmetry. Suppose G_1 has a new automorphism σ such that $\sigma \notin Aut(G)$. For σ to permute two vertices $u, v \in V(G_1)$, the deletion of v_i must remove hyperedges that previously prevented this symmetry. Specifically, in the hyperedges of G incident to v_i, there must exist a structural conflict where $\sigma(u) \neq v$, meaning u and v were distinguished in G but become indistinguishable in G_1 after the removal of v_i. This situation leads to a larger automorphism group for G_1 compared to G.

Second, the hypergraph can *lose* symmetry. Suppose G has a nontrivial automorphism group, and $\sigma \in Aut(G)$. If v_i participates in transpositions or permutations that are part of a generator of $Aut(G)$, then removing v_i invalidates all symmetries involving v_i. For example, if σ contains a transposition $(v_i\, u)$, deleting v_i disrupts the symmetry, reducing the automorphism group of G_1 to a subgroup of $Aut(G)$. This case is rigorously outlined in 3.3.2.

Finally, the symmetry of the hypergraph may remain *unchanged*. If the vertex v_i being removed does not participate in any transpositions within the automorphism group of G, the automorphism group of G_1 will be identical to $Aut(G)$. This is explained in 3.3.3.

Understanding the nature of induced symmetries during `FK-A` recursion is challenging due to their hierarchical and modular structure. As we can see, depending on the choice of vertex, a variety of symmetries or no symmetries might emerge.

Chapter 4

Hard Classes of Hypergraphs for FK-A

Fredman and Khachiyan derived upper bounds on the number of recursive calls in 2.3.4 by bounding the smallest edge size and vertex frequency in the input hypergraphs 2.3.3 [FK96]. These bounds showed that Trans-Hyp is not NP-hard. Otherwise, any problem in NP could be solved in quasi-polynomial time, which is considered highly unlikely. Takata presented a super-polynomial lower bound of $n^{\Omega(\log \log n)}$ for Berge's algorithm (which solves the *generation*-version of the problem), using the *alternating trees* as an example [Tak08].

The term *Alternating Trees* in the context of hypergraph transversals was used in [GK99] to describe a family of hypergraphs used to prove the upper bounds of FK-A. Identifying challenging hypergraph classes, including Alternating Trees, has remained a problem of interest. A different description of alternating trees was later presented in [Tak08], describing another family of hypergraphs. Hertel unified both descriptions to propose a generalized Alternating Trees family in [Her04], conjecturing that these hypergraphs are challenging for FK-A and presented a superpolynomial upper bound of $n^{\omega(\log^{1-\mathcal{O}(1)} n)}$ on the number of subproblems.

4.1 Hypergraph Operations

Let $G = (V, E(G))$ and $H = (V, E(H))$ be two hypergraphs, where $E(G) = \{e_1, e_2, \ldots, e_m\}$ and $E(H) = \{f_1, f_2, \ldots, f_{m'}\}$. Using $\vee$ and $\wedge$ as binary operators on the edge sets of the hypergraphs, we can construct two new hypergraphs as follows:

- $G \vee H$: This hypergraph has $V(G \vee H) = V(G) \cup V(H)$ and $E(G \vee H) = E(G) \cup E(H) = \{e_1, e_2, \ldots, e_m, f_1, f_2, \ldots, f_{m'}\}$.
- $G \wedge H$: This hypergraph has $V(G \wedge H) = V(G) \cup V(H)$ and $E(G \wedge H) = \{e \wedge f : e \in E(G), f \in E(H)\} = \{e_i \wedge f_j : i = 1, \ldots, m, j = 1, \ldots, m'\}$.

The minimal transversals of $G \vee H$ and $G \wedge H$ relate to the minimal transversals of G and H as follows [Ber87]:

- $Tr(G \vee H) = min(Tr(G) \wedge Tr(H))$ 1.1.3,
- $Tr(G \wedge H) = min(Tr(G) \vee Tr(H))$

If G and H do not share any vertices, every edge in $Tr(G)$ is disjoint from every edge in $Tr(H)$. Thus:

- $Tr(G \vee H) = Tr(G) \wedge Tr(H)$, and $|Tr(G \vee H)| = |Tr(G)| \cdot |Tr(H)|$,
- $Tr(G \wedge H) = Tr(G) \vee Tr(H)$, and $|Tr(G \wedge H)| = |Tr(G)| + |Tr(H)|$.

[Tak08]

Berge presented and proved this construction in [Ber87]. [KS03] also presented this construction for their solution to `FK-A`.

4.2 Alternating Trees

4.2.1 $\mathcal{GK}$-family

Gurvich and Khachiyan presented an example of such a class of hypergraphs in [GK99] for whom, in `FK-A`, the bounds are tight up to a factor of 2. They denoted the family of hypergraphs f_k and their transversal hypergraphs g_k as *alternating trees.* We will call them *$\mathcal{GK}$-family.*

Let f_k be denoted as the collection of hypergraphs on 2^{2k-1} vertices defined by the following recursion:

$$
\begin{aligned}
&f_1 = v_1 \vee v_2,\\
&f_2 = ((v_1 \vee v_2) \wedge (v_3 \vee v_4)) \vee ((v_5 \vee v_6) \wedge (v_7 \vee v_8)),\\
&\quad\vdots\\
&f_{k+1} = ((f_k(v_1, \ldots, v_{n(k)}) \wedge f_k(v_{n(k)+1}, \ldots, v_{2n(k)})) \vee (f_k(v_{2n(k)+1}, \ldots, v_{3n(k)}) \wedge f_k(v_{3n(k)+1}, \ldots, v_{4n(k)})).
\end{aligned}
$$

Here, let f_2 be expressed as $(A_1 \wedge A_2) \vee (A_3 \wedge A_4)$, where A_i $(i = 1, \ldots, 4)$ are vertex-disjoint copies of f_1. Then, f_k can be recursively written as:

$$f_1 = v_1 \vee v_2, \quad f_k = (A_1 \wedge A_2) \vee (A_3 \wedge A_4).$$

The corresponding transversal hypergraph for f_k, denoted g_k are defined by the following recurrence:

$$\begin{aligned} g_1 &= v_1 \wedge v_2, \\ g_2 &= ((v_1 \wedge v_2) \vee (v_3 \wedge v_4)) \wedge ((v_5 \wedge v_6) \vee (v_7 \wedge v_8)), \\ &\vdots \\ g_{k+1} &= (g_k(v_1, \ldots, v_{n(k)}) \vee g_k(v_{n(k)+1}, \ldots, v_{2n(k)})) \wedge \\ &\quad (g_k(v_{2n(k)+1}, \ldots, v_{3n(k)}) \vee g_k(v_{3n(k)+1}, \ldots, v_{4n(k)})). \end{aligned}$$

Similarly, we denote $g_2 = (A_1 \vee A_2) \wedge (A_3 \vee A_4)$, where $A_i, i = 1, \ldots, 4$ are disjoint copies of g_1, and get the following recursive form of g_k:

$$g_1 = v_1 \wedge v_2, \quad g_k \quad = (A_1 \vee A_2) \wedge (A_3 \vee A_4).$$



(a) f_2 (b) g_2

Figure 4.1: Hypergraphs f_2 and g_2 in the $\mathcal{GK}$-family.

4.2.2 $\mathcal{TK}$-family

Takata denoted a class of recursively defined hypergraphs and their transversals as *alternating trees* as well. We will address them as $\mathcal{TK}$-family. The set of hypergraphs $S_k \in \mathcal{TK}$ is defined recursively as follows:

$$S_0 = v_1, \quad S_1 = (v_1 \vee v_2) \wedge (v_3 \vee v_4).$$

For $k \geq 2$, S_k is constructed as:

$$S_k = (A \vee B) \wedge (C \vee D),$$

where A, B, C, D are vertex-disjoint copies of S_{k-1}.

The transversal hypergraph of S_k, denoted r_k, is defined recursively as follows:

$$r_0 = v_1, \quad r_1 = (v_1 \wedge v_2) \vee (v_3 \wedge v_4).$$

For $k \geq 2$, r_k is constructed as:

$$r_k = (A_1 \wedge A_2) \vee (A_3 \wedge A_4),$$

where A_i, $i = 1, \ldots, 4$ are vertex-disjoint copies of r_{k-1}.

4.2.3 Combined Alternating Trees

Hertel defined the combined alternating trees recursively as follows:

$$\Gamma_0 = \{v\}, \quad \Gamma_i = \begin{cases} A \wedge B & \text{if } i \text{ odd}, \\ A \vee B & \text{if } i \text{ even}. \end{cases}$$

where A and B are vertex-disjoint copies of Γ_{i-1}, and $\{v\}$ represents a hypergraph with a single edge containing one vertex. [Her04]

The alternating tree Γ_i corresponds to a hypergraph H_i with 2^i vertices, forming a binary tree of height i, where each leaf represents a distinct vertex. They correspond to specific hypergraph families: $\mathcal{GK}$-family for odd i, and $\mathcal{TK}$-family for even i.

Denoting the set of edges of hypergraphs H_i as E_i, we have:

$$|E_0| = 1, \quad |E_i| = \begin{cases} 2 \times |E_{i-1}| & \text{if } i \text{ is odd}, \\ |E_{i-1}|^2 & \text{if } i \text{ is even}, \end{cases} \qquad |E_i| = 2^{2^{(i/2)-1}} \text{ for even } i.$$

Similarly, denoting the set of transversals (edges in $Tr(H_i)$) as E'_i, when $Tr(H)$ is generated by Γ_i:

$$|E'_0| = 1, \quad |E'_i| = \begin{cases} |E'_{i-1}|^2 & \text{if } i \text{ is odd}, \\ 2 \times |E'_{i-1}| & \text{if } i \text{ is even}, \end{cases} \qquad |E'_i| = 2^{(i/2)-1} \text{ for even } i.$$

To generate the hypergraph g_2 in the $\mathcal{GK}$-family, $\vee$ (*union*) of the edges in Γ_3 are considered. Similarly, the hypergraph f_2 in the $\mathcal{GK}$-family is generated by taking $\wedge$ (*join*) of the edges in Γ_3, with edges in f_2 and g_2 representing the resulting vertex sets.

Gurvich first characterized these alternating trees by properties of their primal graphs in the 70's [Gur77]. Hertel identified the alternating trees as the *read-once* hypergraphs [Her04]. They are also called exact-transversal hypergraphs or *xt*-hypergraphs [Eit94]. In Boolean terms, they are known as read-once functions. [GMR06] shows that there is a one-to-one correspondence between read-once Boolean functions and read-once hypergraphs.

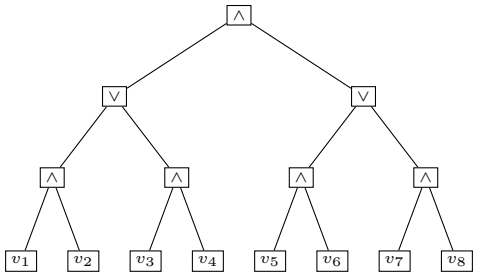


Figure 4.2: Alternating Tree g_2 in $\mathcal{GK}$ family

4.3 Frequency Bound on Alternating Families

4.3.1 Bound on $\mathcal{GK}$-family

Let $E(f_k), E(g_k)$ denote the sets of hyperedges of f_k, and g_k. It naturally follows that, $|E(f_1)| = 2, |E(f_2)| = 2^2, \ldots, |E(f_{k+1})| = 2 \cdot |E(f_k)|^2$. This leads to, $|(f_k)| = 2^{2^k-1}$ for $k = 1, 2, \ldots$.

The frequency $\epsilon(f_k)$ for each vertex v_i in each f_k is uniform, and since $|e| = 2^{k-1}, \forall e \in E(f_k)$, we get that $\epsilon_k = 2^{-k}$.

Similarly, we get that $|E(g_1)| = 1, |E(g_2)| = 2^2, \ldots, |E(g_{k+1})| = (2 \cdot |E(f_k)|)^2$, leading to $|E(g_k)| = \frac{1}{2} \cdot |f_k| = 2^{2^k-2}$ for $k = 1, 2, \ldots$. Since $|e| = 2^k, \forall e \in E(g_k)$, each vertex v_i occurs in g_k with the uniform frequency $\epsilon(g_k) = 2^{1-k}$.

Then, we get $\max\{\epsilon(f_k), \epsilon(g_k)\} = 2^{1-k} \leq \frac{2}{\log_2(|E(f_k)|+|E(g_k)|)} = \frac{2}{2^k+\log_2(3/4)}$.

Clearly, f_k is comprised of 2^k distinct vertices and they form a binary recursive tree of height k, where each leaf is a distinct vertex. We join two vertex-disjoint copies of f_{k-1} to construct f_k.

In current literature, is not clear how the frequency at the top level, i.e. at the level of the original input hypergraphs f_k and g_k influences the behavior of `FK-A` at the lower levels of the recursion.

4.3.2 Frequency Bound on $\mathcal{TK}$-family of Hypergraphs

Let $E(S_i)$ and $E(r_i)$ denote the sets of hyperedges of S_i and its transversal hypergraph r_i. For the $\mathcal{TK}$-family, the size of S_i grows as $|E(S_1)| = 4$, $|E(S_2)| = (2 \cdot |E(S_1)|)^2$, leading to $|E(S_i)| = 2^{2(2^i-1)}$ for $i = 1, 2, \ldots$.

The frequency $\epsilon(S_i)$ for each vertex in S_i is uniform. Since the size of each hyperedge $|e| = 2^i$ and $|e| = |V(S_i)| \cdot \epsilon(S_i)$ for any $e \in E(S_i)$, we get $\epsilon(S_i) = 2^{-i}$.

For the transversal hypergraph r_i, we observe similar frequency behavior. The size of each edge in $E(r_i)$ matches that in $E(S_i)$. Using the same argument, $\epsilon(r_i) = 2^{-i}$. Combining these, we get:

$$\epsilon(S_i) = 2^{-i} \leq \frac{2}{\log_2(|E(S_i)| + |E(r_i)|)}.$$

Since $|E(S_i)| = 2^{2(2^i-1)}$ and $|E(r_i)| = 2^{2^i-1}$, the frequency bound becomes:

$$\epsilon(S_i) \leq \frac{2}{\log_2(2^{2(2^i-1)} + 2^{2^i-1})}.$$

Both families of hypergraphs, despite having slightly different structure, attains the bound presented by [FK96].

4.4 Read-Once Hypergraphs

Definition 4.4.1. A hypergraph H is called *read-once* if it can be represented by an expression using the operations of *join* ($\wedge$), and *union* ($\vee$), in which each vertex appears exactly once. Such an expression is called a *read-once expression*.

[CH11]

Example 4.4.2. Consider the Boolean function

$$f_0 = (v_1 \wedge v_6) \vee (v_3 \wedge v_5 \wedge v_6) \vee (v_2 \wedge v_4) \vee (v_2 \wedge v_7).$$

This is a read-once hypergraph since it can be factored into the read-once expression

$$f_0 = (v_6 \wedge (v_1 \vee (v_3 \wedge v_5))) \vee (v_2 \wedge (v_4 \vee v_7),$$

which is a read-once expression.

Read-once hypergraph have been studied since the 60's [Che67] and Hayes [Hay75]. Gurvich first characterized them in [Gur77] as the following: A hypergraph $H = (V, E)$ is *read-once* if and only if:

- H is conformal.
- The primal graph $G(H)$ of H has no induced P_4

The class of graphs who don't contain any induced P_4 are called cographs. [CLB81]

4.4.1 Primal Graphs of Read-Once Hypergraphs

Primal graphs of conformal hypergraphs often belong to well-known graph classes, such as perfect graphs. One such class of perfect graphs are cographs 4.4. Other class of perfect graphs who are primal graphs of hypergraphs include chordal graphs, chordal bipartite graphs etc. These graph classes help characterize the structures and symmetries of several families of k-uniform hypergraphs.

Definition 4.4.3. A graph G is called *chordal* (or *triangulated*) if every cycle of length at least four has a *chord*, where a chord is an edge $e \in E(G)$ that is not part of the cycle but connects two non-consecutive vertices in the cycle.

Definition 4.4.4. A hypergraph $H = (V, E)$ is *α-acyclic* if it is conformal and its primal graph $G(H)$ is chordal.

Definition 4.4.5. A bipartite graph $G = (U \cup W, E)$ is called *chordal bipartite* if every cycle of length at least six has a chord.

Primal graphs of read-once hypergraphs are called complement reducible graphs or *cographs* 4.4.

Cographs have been characterized independently by [CLB81], [Gur77], [KLN$^+$93]. We present the following to examine the structure of cographs.

Definition 4.4.6. A *cograph* () can also be defined recursively as follows: [Cam22]

1. A single vertex v is a cograph.
2. The union ($\vee$) of disjoint cographs is a cograph.
3. The join ($\wedge$) of disjoint cographs is a cograph.
4. The complement G^c of a cograph G is a cograph.

Lemma 4.4.7. *If G is a cograph with more than one vertex, then either G or its complement G^C is disconnected. [CLB81]*

The recursive building of a cograph G from a single vertex can be represented by a rooted tree T, denoted the *cotree*, defined as:

1. The leaf nodes of T are labeled by the vertices of G.
2. Each non-leaf vertex has at least two children.
3. All non-leaf vertices of T are labelled either by $\vee$ or $\wedge$.
4. If G is formed from the disjoint cographs $G_1, G_2, \ldots, G_k$ ($k > 1$), then the root r of T has as its children the roots of the trees of $G_1, G_2, \ldots, G_k$.
5. The root r is labeled $\vee$ if G is formed by the union, and labeled $\wedge$ if G is formed by the join rule. (4.1)
6. On every path from the root to a leaf node in T, the labels of the internal nodes alternate between $\vee$ and $\wedge$.

The root of the cotree is labeled $\vee$ if G is disconnected and labeled $\wedge$ if G is connected. An internal node is labeled $\vee$ if its parent is labeled $\wedge$, and vice versa.

A hypergraph, defined using the operations of join ($\wedge$) and union ($\vee$), can be represented as a rooted parse tree. The leaves of this tree are labeled by the vertices $\{v_1, v_2, \ldots, v_n\}$, while

the internal nodes are labeled with the operations $\wedge$ and $\vee$. For a read-once hypergraph, each vertex appears exactly once as a leaf, with a unique path from the root to the vertex.

The cotree of a P_4-free graph closely resembles the parse tree of a read-once hypergraph. If the hypergraph is read-once, its parse tree coincides with the cotree of its primal graph, which is a cograph. Conversely, a cotree always generates a read-once hypergraph.

Theorem 4.4.8. *A graph G has a cotree representation if and only if G is a cograph. In this case, the cotree representation is unique.*

[CLB81]

Given the correspondence between the parse-tree and cotree representation of a hypergraph, we make the following observation:

Observation 4.4.9. *The alternating tree presented in [Her04] (4.2) is a cotree representation of the $\mathcal{GK}$-faamily.*

4.4.2 Automorphism Structure of Read-Once Hypergraphs

Definition 4.4.10. Let $H = (V, E)$ be a hypergraph and $S \subseteq V$. The *open neighborhood* of S, denoted by $N(S)$, is the set of vertices adjacent to S, excluding S, i.e.,

$$N(S) = \{v \in V \mid \exists e \in E, v \in e, S \cap e \neq \emptyset, v \notin S\}.$$

The *closed neighborhood* of S, denoted by $N[S]$, is the union of the open neighborhood and S, i.e.,

$$N[S] = N(S) \cup S.$$

For a single vertex $v \in V$, we write $N(v)$ for $N(\{v\})$ and $N[v]$ for $N[\{v\}]$.

Definition 4.4.11. Two distinct vertices $u, v \in V$ of a hypergraph H are called:

- *False twins* if $N(u) = N(v)$,
- *True twins* if $N[u] = N[v]$, in which case u and v are adjacent.

More generally, two vertices are said to be *twins* if they are either false twins or true twins. Being twins in a graph is an equivalence relation. Twins in the same orbit of the automorphism group are in the same equivalence class.

Consider a hypergraph with vertices $\{v_1, v_2, v_3, v_4\}$ and hyperedges $\{\{v_1, v_2\}, \{v_2, v_3, v_4\}, \{v_1, v_3\}\}$. The neighborhoods are $N(v_1) = \{v_2, v_3\}$, $N(v_2) = \{v_1, v_3, v_4\}$, $N(v_3) = \{v_1, v_2, v_4\}$, and $N(v_4) = \{v_2, v_3\}$. Vertices v_2 and v_3 are true twins because their closed neighborhoods are identical, $N[v_2] = N[v_3] = \{v_1, v_2, v_3, v_4\}$. In contrast, v_1 and v_4 are false twins because their open neighborhoods are the same, $N(v_1) = N(v_4) = \{v_2, v_3\}$.

Cographs and chordal graphs belong to the class of distance-hereditary graphs.

Definition 4.4.12. A graph $G = (V, E)$ is called *distance hereditary* if, for every connected induced subgraph $G' = (V', E')$ of G, the distance (1.1.7) between any two vertices $u, v \in V'$ in G' is the same as their distance in G. Formally, G is distance hereditary if, for every connected induced subgraph G', $d_{G'}(u, v) = d_G(u, v)$ for all $u, v \in V'$.

Lemma 4.4.13. *Let $G = (V, E)$ be a distance-hereditary graph, H its conformal clique hypergraph, and $Tr(H)$ its transversal hypergraph. If $u, v \in V$ are twin vertices in G, then u and v permute in both H and $Tr(H)$. [Tim13]*

Proof. If u and v are true twins in G, they share identical neighborhoods and are adjacent. Any maximal clique in G containing u must also contain v. In H, this ensures u and v co-appear in every hyperedge corresponding to a maximal clique, and thus u and v permute in H. Similarly, if u and v are false twins, they share identical neighborhoods but are not adjacent. Any stable set in G containing u must also contain v. Consequently, in $Tr(H)$, u and v co-appear in every hyperedge corresponding to a stable set, ensuring their permutation in $Tr(H)$.

For conformal H, each maximal clique in G directly corresponds to a hyperedge in H, preserving the structural symmetry of u and v. Hence, u and v permute in both H and $Tr(H)$. □

If H is non-conformal, the mapping of maximal cliques or stable sets to hyperedges may not hold, potentially breaking the symmetry. Therefore, we see that the presence of twins in read-once hypergraphs means they will permute in the primal graph, thus creating localized symmetries in the hypergraphs.

Lemma 4.4.14. *Let $H = (V, E)$ be a hypergraph and $\phi : V \to V$ be an automorphism of H. If $u_1, u_2 \in V$ are true twins or $v_1, v_2 \in V$ are false twins in H, then $\phi(u_1), \phi(u_2)$ are true twins, and $\phi(v_1), \phi(v_2)$ are false twins in H.*

Proof. True twins u_1 and u_2 satisfy $N[u_1] = N[u_2]$, meaning they are adjacent and share the same neighbors. Since ϕ is an automorphism preserving adjacency, $\phi(u_1)$ and $\phi(u_2)$ are also adjacent, and $\phi(N[u_1]) = N[\phi(u_1)]$, $\phi(N[u_2]) = N[\phi(u_2)]$. Thus, $N[\phi(u_1)] = N[\phi(u_2)]$, confirming $\phi(u_1)$ and $\phi(u_2)$ are true twins.

False twins v_1 and v_2 satisfy $N(v_1) = N(v_2)$, sharing neighbors but not being adjacent. As ϕ preserves non-adjacency, $\phi(v_1)$ and $\phi(v_2)$ are also non-adjacent, with $\phi(N(v_1)) = N(\phi(v_1))$, $\phi(N(v_2)) = N(\phi(v_2))$. Hence, $N(\phi(v_1)) = N(\phi(v_2))$, confirming $\phi(v_1)$ and $\phi(v_2)$ are false twins.

Thus, ϕ maps true twins to true twins and false twins to false twins in H i.e. twin-classes get mapped to other twin-classes. □

For a graph G, permuting twin vertices while fixing all other vertices is an automorphism of G. Consequently, the automorphism group of G contains a normal subgroup that is the direct product of symmetric groups corresponding to the twin classes.

Proposition 4.4.15. *Let G be a cograph. The automorphism group of G can be constructed from the trivial group using direct product (3.1) and wreath product ([**?**]) with a symmetric group. [Cam22]*

A cograph hypergraph can be built from the single-vertex hypergraph using operations of complement and disjoint union. Complementation does not alter the automorphism group. If H is the disjoint union of m_1 copies of H_1, m_2 copies of H_2, ..., m_r copies of H_r, then the automorphism group of H is given by:

$$Aut(H) = (Aut(H_1) \wr S_{m_1}) \times \cdots \times (Aut(H_r) \wr S_{m_r})$$

Chapter 5

Code and Experiments

5.1 Implementation of `FK-A`

For the purpose of this thesis, we (jointly with Lacey Liang) developed a Python implementation of the `FK-A` algorithm. Using Python makes the implementation more accessible and allows for modifications that enabled a visualization of the recursion tree. We used incidence matrices to represent hypergraphs, where each row corresponds to a hyperedge and each column to a unique vertex. Existing implementations in `MATLAB` and `C`, such as `cl-jointgen` and `cl-jointgen -c`, incorporate some of the modifications we included in our implementation [HKS08].

The hypergraph dualization repository curated by Murakami and Uno [Uno] is a key resource for existing algorithms and experimental test cases related to hypergraph dualization (or solving `Trans-Hyp`). It contains several implementations in `C` and `PASCAL`. The repository also provides benchmark problem instances such as threshold graphs, uniform random hypergraphs, and hypergraphs derived from various challenging datasets.

A complete documentation of our implementation, along with explanations of the algorithm and additional tests on the primal graph properties of hypergraphs, is available in the GitHub repository: Hypergraph Transversal Thesis.

5.1.1 Modifications in the Implementation of `FK-A`

To ensure that the subhypergraphs in the visualization of `FK-A` recursion tree are Sperner as well, we introduced a post-decomposition Sperner reduction filter. The Sperner reduction runs the following filters:

- **Duplicate Removal:** The function `Unique(f, g)` eliminates duplicate edges in the hypergraph.
- **Superset Removal:** The function `remove_superset(np_arr)` removes edges that are supersets of other edges. Formally, for sets A and B, A is considered a superset of B if $B \subseteq A$.

These filters result in a Sperner-reduced hypergraph. Removing supersets is a practical bottleneck of the algorithm, and using optimization techniques here would speed up the algorithm's performance overall.

Expansion of Checking Trivial Cases: From 1, `FK-A` tests the preconditions at each recursion level and checks whether $|G| \cdot |H| \leq 1$. If this condition is satisfied, the result is computed in $\mathcal{O}(1)$ time.

To reduce nodes on the lower recursion levels, we introduce an additional precondition to handle cases where $|G| = 1$ or $|H| = 1$. WLOG, if $|G| = 1$, then G contains a single edge e such that $|e| = k$. In this case, for the input hypergraphs to be transversals, $|H|$ must equal k, with H being a k-sized collection of singleton edges. This verification can be achieved in linear time, $\mathcal{O}(k)$, without necessitating further recursive calls for each vertex in e.

Let G, H denote the input hypergraphs, and consider their decomposed subhypergraphs at depth d in the recursion tree T, denoted G_d and H_d. These subhypergraphs fall into one of the following categories:

$$D_{1,k} : \ |G_d| = 1, \ |H_d| = k, \quad \text{or} \quad D_{k,1} : \ |G_d| = k, \ |H_d| = 1.$$

In the naive implementation, the recursion tree T will always include $D_{1,0}$, $D_{0,1}$, and $D_{1,1}$ as leaf nodes. By introducing this precondition, additional leaf nodes of type $D_{1,k}$ and $D_{k,1}$ are created, where $k \geq 2$. For each such node, the naive implementation would have required up to $k - 1$ additional recursive steps to reduce to $D_{1,1}$. Our optimization eliminates these steps, significantly simplifying T and reducing redundant computations.

5.1.2 Visualization of the`FK-A` Algorithm and Recursion Tree

The visualizer for the`FK-A` algorithm provides a dynamic view of its recursive structure, showcasing the evolution of hypergraphs G and H through transformations, splitting vertices, and recursion paths. It generates a recursion tree T, capturing key decisions and decompositions at each step.

The recursion tree T illustrates the decomposition process:

- **Left Branch (L)**: Represents $(G_1, H_0 \vee H_1)$.
- **Right Branch (R)**: Represents $(H_1, G_0 \vee G_1)$.
- **Node Depth**: Each node v has depth $d_v(T)$, defined as the length of the path from the root to v.

The splitting variable v partitions G and H into subhypergraphs G_0, G_1, H_0, and H_1. They form the input for recursive calls, with changes annotated by the `@Visualiser` decorator

The visualizer records the frequent vertex v at each step and shows the non-Sperner edges filtered out on each node. Node-specific exploration is supported via `display(node_num)`, which outputs the intermediary hypergraphs, deleted rows, and splitting variables.

5.2 Experiments and Results

Datasets featuring hypergraphs with large transversal hypergraphs compiled in [Uno] are commonly used in the study of `FK-A` and related algorithms for solving `Trans-Hyp` [**?**, Tak08]. This thesis looks into the symmetric properties of hypergraphs and the impact of recursion trees in `FK-A`. It also focuses on identifying hypergraph classes where `FK-A` faces challenges and analyze their symmetry and combinatorial properties. Thus, large recursion trees by themselves do not provide new insights for our analysis.

We used selected hypergraphs as input for `FK-A` and published their recursion trees and automorphism group trees. The hypergraph property we examined was *conformality.* Conformality preserves the structure of the primal graph through their maximal cliques but does not preserve the edge-incidence structure. It is an important property for studying acyclicity in hypergraphs.

We also studied the primal graphs of these hypergraphs. We checked if they belong to specific graph classes: cographs, chordal graphs, or chordal bipartite graphs. These graph classes are subclasses of distance-hereditary graphs, and thus contain equivalence classes of twin vertices.

5.2.1 Problem Instances

We selected some familiar read-once hypergraphs (f_2, g_2), and some new some new hypergraphs on small number of vertices.

Hypergraph f_2 and its transversal hypergraph g_2:

$$f_2 = \{\{v_1, v_3\}, \{v_1, v_4\}, \{v_2, v_3\}, \{v_2, v_4\}, \{v_5, v_7\}, \{v_5, v_8\}, \{v_6, v_7\}, \{v_6, v_8\}\}$$

$$g_2 = \{\{v_1, v_2, v_7, v_8\}, \{v_3, v_4, v_5, v_6\}, \{v_1, v_2, v_5, v_6\}, \{v_3, v_4, v_7, v_8\}\}$$

Hertel also presented another family of read-once hypergraphs and called it *Mark's class.* It consists of Sperner hypergraphs of the form:

$$H_q^p = c_1 \wedge c_2 \wedge \cdots \wedge c_p$$

where each c_i in H_q^p is disjoint from every other c_j, and c_is have the form:

$$c_i = ((v_1 \wedge v_2 \wedge \cdots \wedge v_q) \vee (v_{q+1} \wedge v_{q+2} \wedge \cdots \wedge v_{2q})).$$

Mark's class produces some hypergraphs not present in alternating trees and allows generation of both the $\mathcal{GK}$-family and $\mathcal{TK}$-family, offering a broader class of recursively generated hypergraphs. However, in our experiments, we did not observe any new characteristics that Mark's class presented and wasn't present in the alternating trees.

Recent work [SS24] has employed reinforcement learning techniques to explore simple hypergraphs that have characteristics that challenge `FK-A`. This work highlights several natural optimization questions to frame their search of pairs of transversal hypergraphs, such as minimizing $\epsilon(G, H)$, minimizing $\log(|G|+|H|)\cdot\epsilon(G, H)$, and identifying hypergraphs that maximize the recursion tree depth for `FK-A`. For our experiment, we selected results that minimize $\epsilon(G, H)$ to better understand and challenge the performance of `FK-A`.

We only took hypergraphs on 6 vertices or larger. For notation, we are calling the hypergraphs and their transversals on 6 vertices as 6-A, 6-B, 6-C, 6-D, the hypergraph on 7 vertices and it's transversal as 7-ver and the hypergraph on 8-vertices and it's transversal as 8-ver.

- Hypergraph 6-A:

$$G = \{\{v_1, v_5, v_6\}, \{v_4, v_5, v_6\}, \{v_1, v_2\}, \{v_2, v_3, v_4\}\},$$
$$H = \{\{v_2, v_4, v_6\}, \{v_2, v_5\}, \{v_1, v_4\}, \{v_1, v_3, v_5\}\}$$

- Hypergraph 6-B:

$$G = \{\{v_1, v_3, v_5\}, \{v_1, v_2, v_6\}, \{v_1, v_2, v_3\}, \{v_1, v_5, v_6\}, \{v_3, v_4, v_5\},$$
$$\{v_2, v_3, v_4\}, \{v_4, v_5, v_6\}, \{v_2, v_4, v_6\}\},$$
$$H = \{\{v_2, v_5\}, \{v_1, v_4\}, \{v_3, v_6\}\}$$

- Hypergraph 6-C:

$$G = \{\{v_3, v_4\}, \{v_1, v_5\}, \{v_2, v_3\}, \{v_4, v_5\}, \{v_5, v_6\}, \{v_3, v_6\},$$
$$\{v_2, v_5\}, \{v_1, v_3\}\},$$
$$H = \{\{v_3, v_5\}, \{v_1, v_2, v_4, v_6\}\}$$

- Hypergraph 6-D:

$$G = \{\{v_1, v_2, v_6\}, \{v_2, v_4\}, \{v_3, v_4, v_5\}, \{v_1, v_3, v_5, v_6\}\},$$
$$H = \{\{v_2, v_3\}, \{v_2, v_5\}, \{v_1, v_4\}, \{v_4, v_6\}\}$$

- Hypergraph 7-Ver:

$$G = \{\{v_1, v_2, v_6\}, \{v_1, v_5, v_7\}, \{v_3, v_4, v_7\}, \{v_2, v_5, v_7\}, \{v_1, v_5, v_6\},$$
$$\{v_1, v_3, v_7\}, \{v_3, v_4, v_5\}, \{v_2, v_3, v_4\}, \{v_2, v_4, v_6\}, \{v_1, v_6, v_7\}, \{v_2, v_5, v_6\}\},$$
$$H = \{\{v_3, v_6, v_7\}, \{v_3, v_5, v_6\}, \{v_1, v_2, v_3\}, \{v_2, v_5, v_7\}, \{v_4, v_6, v_7\},$$
$$\{v_1, v_4, v_5\}, \{v_1, v_2, v_4\}\}$$

- Hypergraph 8-Ver:

$$G = \{\{v_2, v_6, v_7, v_8\}, \{v_3, v_7, v_8\}, \{v_1, v_4, v_5\}, \{v_2, v_5, v_6\}, \{v_1, v_3, v_4\}\},$$
$$H = \{\{v_3, v_4, v_6\}, \{v_2, v_3, v_5\}, \{v_8, v_1, v_2\}, \{v_8, v_3, v_5\}, \{v_4, v_5, v_7\}, \{v_2, v_4, v_7\}, \{v_1, v_5, v_7\},$$
$$\{v_1, v_2, v_7\}, \{v_3, v_5, v_7\}, \{v_1, v_3, v_7\}, \{v_8, v_1, v_6\}, \{v_8, v_4, v_6\}, \{v_3, v_5, v_6\},$$
$$\{v_8, v_2, v_4\}, \{v_8, v_1, v_5\}, \{v_2, v_3, v_4\}, \{v_4, v_6, v_7\}, \{v_1, v_3, v_6\}, \{v_8, v_4, v_5\}\}$$

The Fano plane hypergraphs are an interesting case, and their family of hypergraphs have been widely used in recent literature [Uno], [**?**] defined as the following:

Definition 5.2.1 (Self-Dual Fano-Plane Hypergraph (SDFP))**.** Let $H = (V, E)$ be a hypergraph with v vertices and $k = \frac{v-2}{7}$. The edge set E_0 of the base hypergraph corresponds to the lines in the Fano plane:

$$H_0 = \{\{v_1, v_2, v_4\}, \{v_2, v_3, v_5\}, \{v_3, v_4, v_6\}, \{v_4, v_5, v_7\}, \{v_1, v_5, v_6\}, \{v_2, v_6, v_7\}, \{v_1, v_3, v_7\}\}$$

The full edge set E is constructed by taking k disjoint copies of H_0, such that $E = \bigcup_{i=1}^{k} E_i$, where each E_i is a copy of E_0.

The hypergraph has $7k$ edges and the transversal has $\frac{(k-2)^2}{4} + k/2 + 1$ edges. We are showing H_0 or the self-transversal fano plane hypergraph in our visualizations, refer to [Uno] for the larger constructions.

We were also interested in examining how symmetry could emerge in inherently asymmetric hypergraphs through the decomposition process and whether there are properties that could provide deeper insight into their latent symmetry and its relationship with `FK-A`. To this end, we constructed several 4-uniform hypergraphs on 8 vertices, each with a trivial automorphism group. We presented the results of two such hypergraphs, denoted Asym $-$ 1 and Asym $-$ 2.

5.2.2 Results and Observations

For the given hypergraphs, each node in the automorphism tree corresponds to a respective node in the `FK-A` recursion tree and reflects the properties of the input hypergraphs at that stage of recursion.

- For each node in the `FK-A` recursion tree, the input hypergraphs G and H (if they are transversals of each other) have the same automorphism group. If one hypergraph between G or H was conformal while the other was not, we noted this in the automorphism tree. Regarding primal graph properties, when the primal graphs of G and H exhibited differing characteristics, we highlighted the property that contributed to either a classification or a recurring structural feature, preferring recurring over non-recurring properties.
- For read-once hypergraphs, the read-once property remained preserved throughout the recursion tree. Consequently, their hypergraph properties did not require updates at each node of the automorphism tree.
- If no significant or distinguishing property was identified for a particular node, the corresponding entry in the automorphism tree was left empty.
- The asymmetric hypergraphs and the Fano plane hypergraph were non-conformal. However, due to the decomposition of small cases, a few recursive steps often reduced the hypergraph sufficiently for familiar structures to emerge, exhibiting properties like read-once or acyclicity.

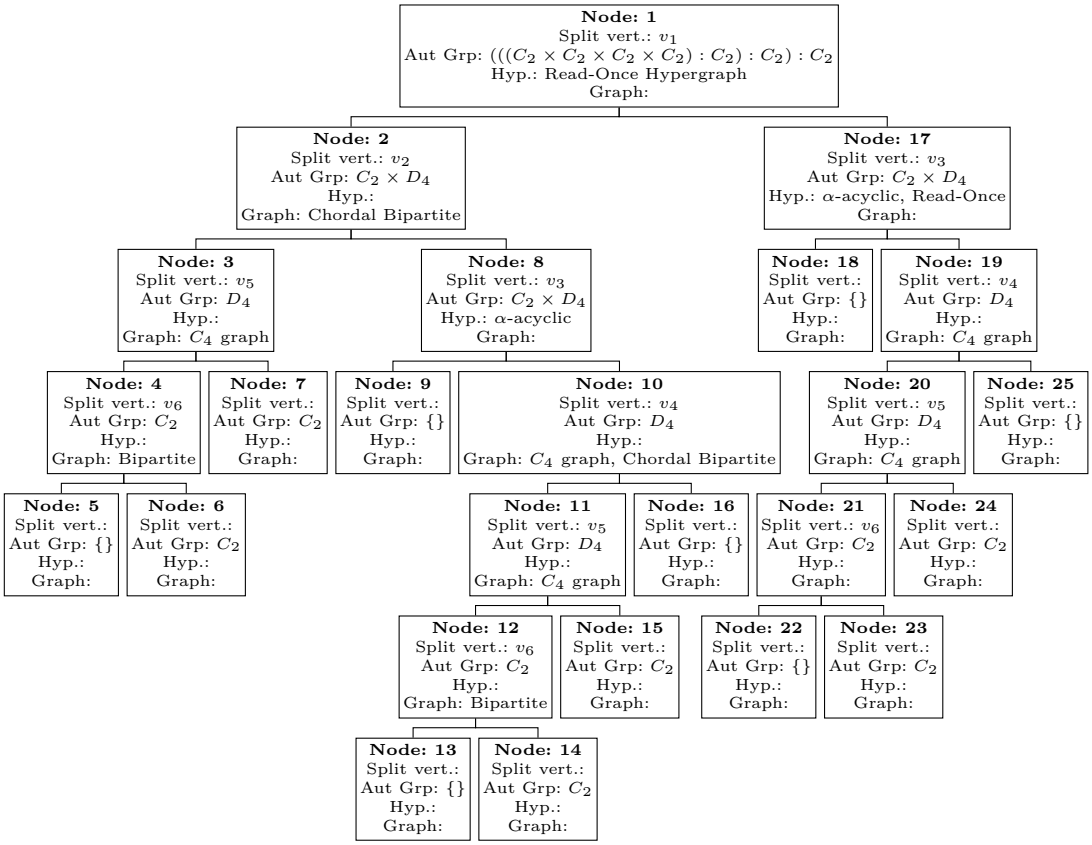
Read-Once Hypergraphs in `FK-A`

The input hypergraphs maintained both their conformality and their read-once property throughout the decomposition process. While this relationship is not preserved in every recursive step, an interesting pattern emerges: if an input hypergraph f at a given node in the automorphism tree is α-acyclic, the primal graph of its transversal is often chordal bipartite. This suggests a potential connection between chordal bipartite graphs and hypergraph acyclicity, warranting further exploration. In our experiments, we did not observe any new characteristics that Mark's class presented and wasn't present in the alternating trees.

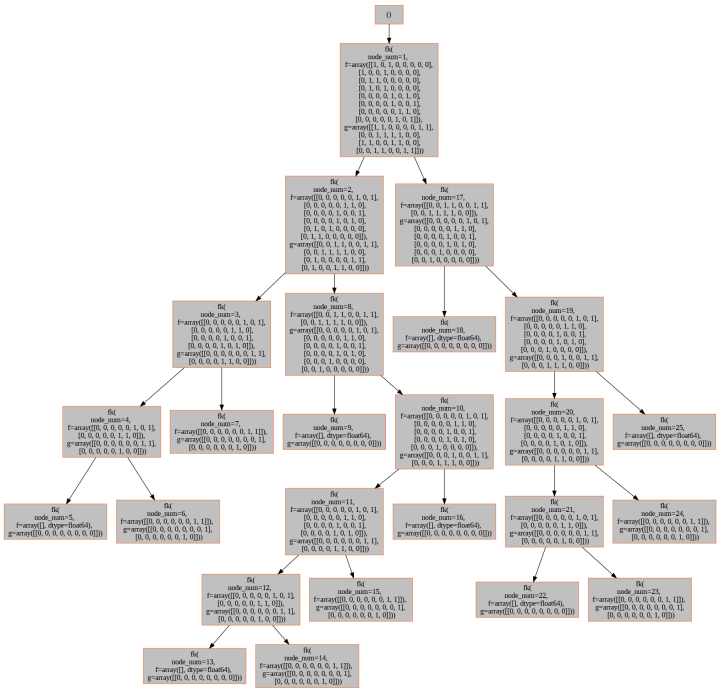
In the recursion tree for `FK-A` on f_2, g_2, we observe the following occurring:

Observation 5.2.2. *In the `FK-A` decomposition of certain read-once hypergraphs, when the most frequent vertex is deleted, its false twin vertices are filtered out by the Sperner condition in the contraction subhypergraph.*

In the `FK-A` decomposition, we use f_2, g_2 to illustrate the observation (see Figure 5.1).



(a) Automorphism Tree of f_2, g_2 from $\mathcal{GK}$-family in FK-A



(b) Figures/f2, g2 inFK-A.png

Figure 5.1: FK-A recursion tree and automorphism tree of f_2, g_2

We note that the twin classes are creating a direct product that's acting as a normal subgroup and the base group of the wreath product, supporting 4.4.15. At Node 1, for f_2, the most frequent vertex is v_1, whose false twin partner is v_2. When v_1 is deleted and the *contraction* subhypergraph $f_0 \vee f_1$ is formed at Node 19 (denoted as g), we observe that two vertices are lost from the hypergraph. However, this is not explicitly shown in `FK-A`, as isolated vertices are not permitted, whereas singleton edges (edges containing a single vertex) are included.

In the corresponding *deletion* subhypergraph at Node 2, we observe that no additional vertices disappear. At Node 19, the remaining two singleton edges are part of both hyperedges in their transversal. Selecting either of these singleton vertices as the next pivot vertex prunes the **L** subproblem at Node 18.

Furthermore, at Node 2, v_2 is selected as the most frequent vertex. The resulting contraction subhypergraph at Node 8 is identical to that at Node 17. This repetition of subproblems contributes to the enlargement of the recursion tree in `FK-A`.

The hypergraphs who are both read-once and α-acyclic, have an interesting property in their primal graphs. Since cographs are distance-hereditary and they are also chordal (4.4.3), these primal graphs are precisely the class of Ptolemaic graphs. We haven't found a classification for the families of hypergraphs when their primal graphs are chordal bipartite, or Ptolemaic in existing literature or their impact on the performance of the `FK-A` algorithm.

As we have previously discussed, Cameron proposed [Cam22] that the automorphism group of cographs can be generated by taking direct products and wreath products with a symmetric group. Now, we get to see if that holds up for the corresponding clique hypergraphs.

Let's consider G, the disjoint union of 2 disjoint C_4, denoted G_1, G_2. The automorphism group $Aut(G)$ must preserve the twin structure of each C_4 while allowing permutations between the two disjoint cycles.

We describe the structure of $Aut(G)$ as follows:

- The base group $C_2 \times C_2 \times C_2 \times C_2$ corresponds to independent actions on the twin classes $\{v_1, v_3\}$, $\{v_2, v_4\}$, $\{v_5, v_7\}$, and $\{v_6, v_8\}$.
- The first top group C_2 permutes the twin classes within each connected structure independently.
- The second top group C_2 permutes the two disjoint components G_1 and G_2.

Combining these, $Aut(G)$ is isomorphic to the iterated wreath product:

$$Aut(G) \cong (((C_2 \times C_2 \times C_2 \times C_2) : C_2) : C_2) : C_2.$$

This reflects the hierarchical structure of symmetries in G. This is also isomorphic to $D_4 \wr S_2$, where the outer S_2 permutes the disjoint cycles.

Therefore, we see that our results support Cameron's proposition (4.4.15)on the primal graph of read-once hypergraphs.

Fano Plane Hypergraph

Before discussing the hypergraphs from [SS24], we note the following:

Observation 5.2.3. *For hypergraphs with $n = 3$ and $n = 7$ vertices, the lower bound on the vertex frequency ϵ for `FK-A` is tight, with $\epsilon(3) = \frac{2}{3}$ and $\epsilon(7) = \frac{3}{7}$, where $\epsilon(n)$ is the lower bound for hypergraphs on n vertices. So, the lower bound is tight for $n = 3, 7$.*

For $n = 3$, we consider the hypergraph K_3, which is the complete 2-uniform graph on 3 vertices. It is self-transversal, with all variable frequencies equal to $\frac{2}{3}$. Since K_3 is the only hypergraph on 3 vertices that achieves this property, $\epsilon_3 = \frac{2}{3}$, and the lower bound is tight. K_3 is the smallest example of a finite projective plane.

For $n = 7$, we consider the Fano plane, the smallest finite projective plane with 7 lines of 3 points each on 7 vertices. The Fano plane is also self-transversal, with all variable frequencies equal to $\frac{3}{7}$.

The Fano plane is also a finite projective plane with the smallest possible number of points and lines, making it the smallest projective plane. No larger projective plane hypergraph has been shown to be self-transversal, further highlighting their distinctiveness in this context.

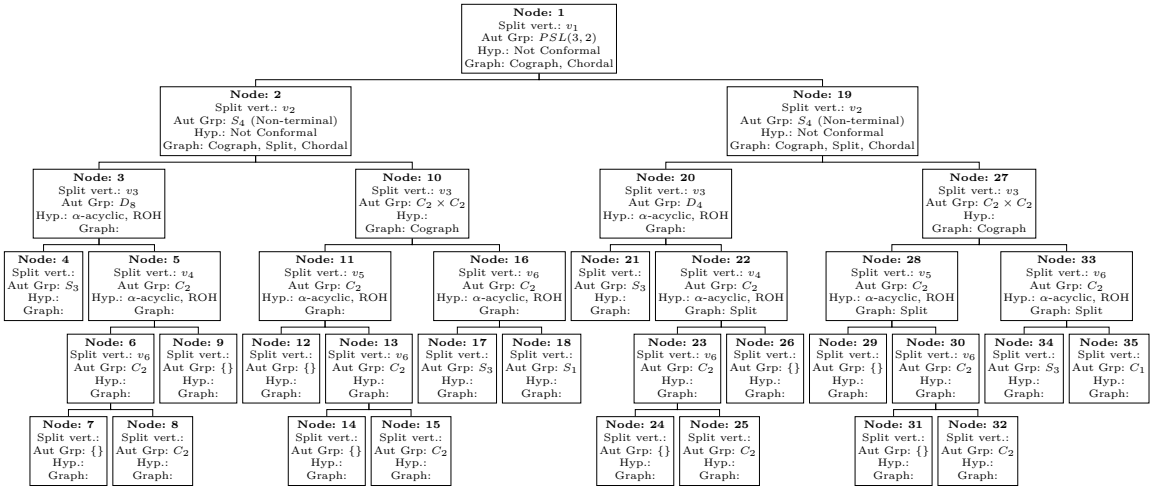
Looking at the hypergraph and its recursion tree, we see a uniform distribution of nodes in the tree. Interestingly, the primal graph of the fano plane is just the complete graph K_7 on 7 vertices. Any 4 vertices together form a K_4, which does not contain a P_4. However, testing primal graph properties did not reveal any additional insights due to the hypergraph being non-conformal.

While large symmetric groups have been sparse on the cases we have examined under `FK-A` recursion,the first recursion on the fano plane results in a nontrivial S_4 on four edges (Node 2, Node 19).

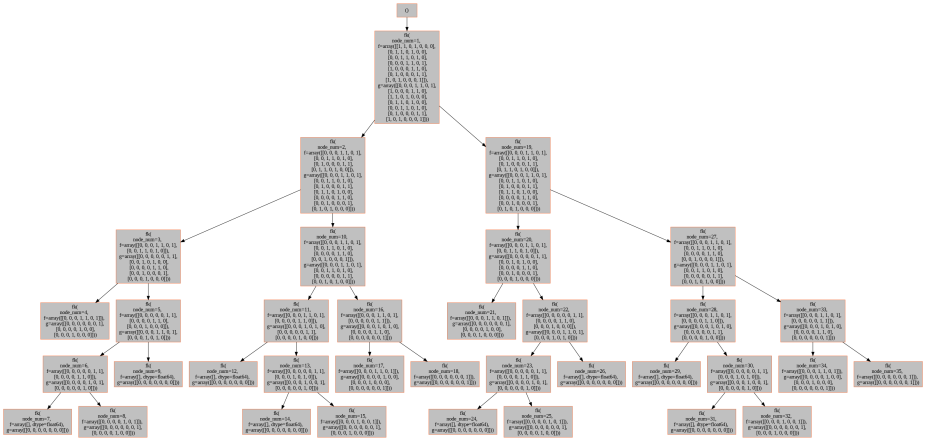
Other Cases

The hypergraphs on 6 vertices-denoted 6-A, 6-B, 6-C, and 6-D did not yield that much new information, but we found that apart from 6-A, the other 3 hypergraphs are all read-once, and α-acyclic hypergraphs, giving us further reasons to investigate hypergraph acyclicity and it's relationship with `FK-A`. All four hypergraphs have the same frequency $\epsilon = \frac{1}{2}$.

The hypergraph 7-Ver. achieves a frequency $\epsilon = \frac{5}{11}$, which is suboptimal compared to the Fano plane hypergraph's $\epsilon = \frac{3}{7}$, representing a tighter frequency bound. Similarly, the hypergraph 8-Ver. achieves $\epsilon(G, H) = \frac{2}{5}$ for all vertices i in both hypergraphs. This frequency, while consistent, is lower than that of the f_2, g_2 hypergraphs.



(a) Automorphism Tree of Self-Transversal Fano Plane Hypergraph in `FK-A`



(b) Fano Plane Hypergraph in `FK-A`

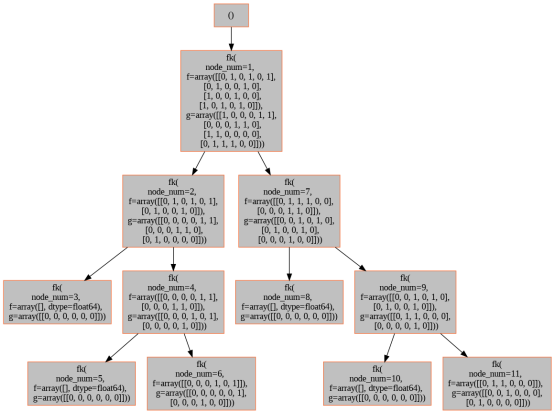
Figure 5.2: `FK-A` recursion tree and automorphism tree of the Fano Plane

We note that while 8-Ver was conformal, 7-Ver was not. In fact, it was the only hypergraph from [SS24] that wasn't conformal, but after some decomposition, later in the recursion tree the hypergraphs became acyclic and read-once. While on 8-Ver., we can see that the input hypergraphs maintained their conformality and also gained read-once and acyclicity properties after a second recursion.

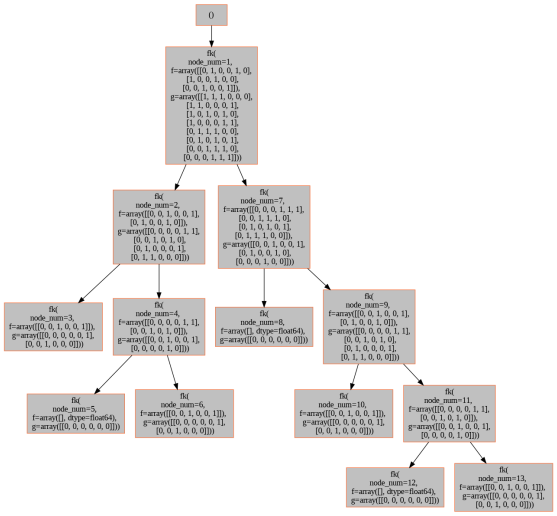
5.3 Future Direction

Future research can examine the connections between hypergraph coloring, symmetry, and the `FK-A` recursion. Hypergraph k-coloring partitions a vertex set into k sets, inducing symmetry within the coloring. However, it is unclear how `FK-A` performs when these colored hypergraphs are used as input. Investigating this relationship could provide new insights into both hypergraph coloring and the behavior of `FK-A` under symmetric constraints.

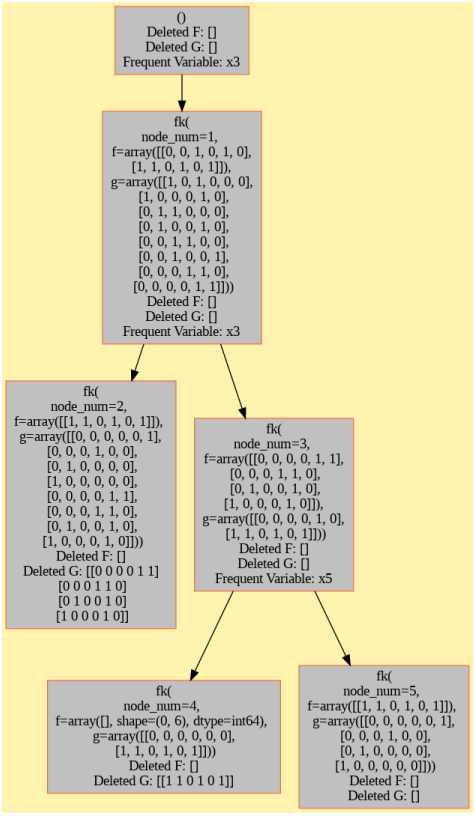
Another direction involves studying the behavior of `FK-A` on various types of acyclic hypergraphs. While α-acyclic hypergraphs are well-studied, other forms of acyclic hypergraphs might influence the algorithm differently. Analyzing their primal graphs and how specific properties are preserved during recursion may uncover new classes of hypergraphs where `FK-A` is less efficient. Additionally, identifying hypergraphs and their transversals that cause `FK-A` to perform poorly can help expanding the upper bounds on `FK-A`. Recent decomposition methods have used twin vertices to simplify graphs and hypergraphs, and have proven effective in creating efficient algorithms [RMN06]. Applying such techniques to `FK-A` is another avenue of research to pursue.



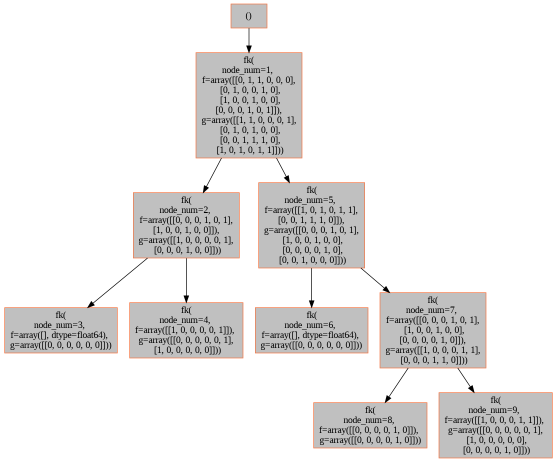
(a) Visualization of 6-A in `FK-A`



(b) Visualization of 6-B in `FK-A`

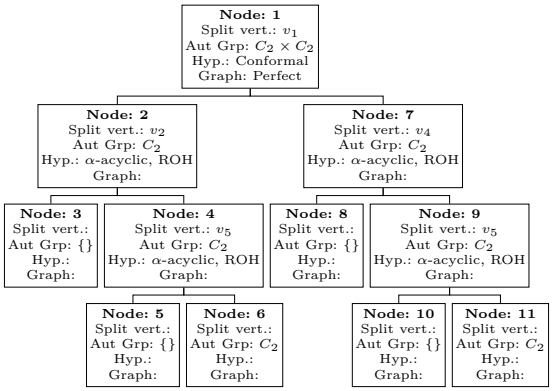


(c) Visualization of 6-C in `FK-A`

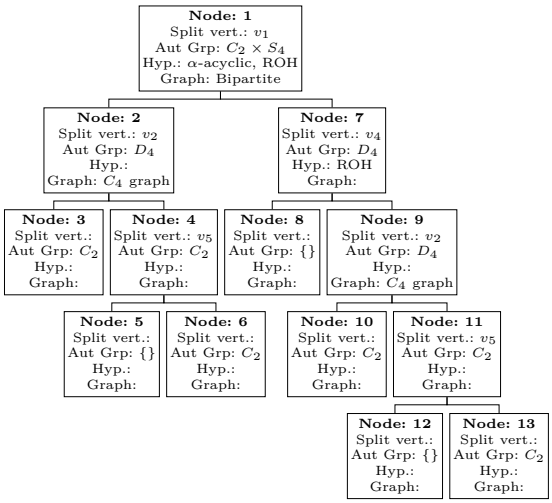


(d) Visualization of 6-D in `FK-A`

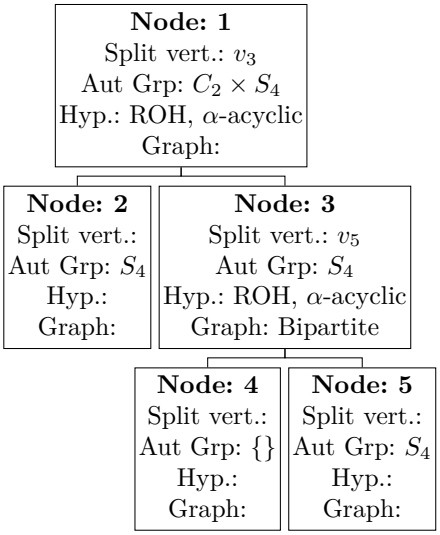
Figure 5.3: Visualizations of hypergraphs on 6 vertices in `FK-A`



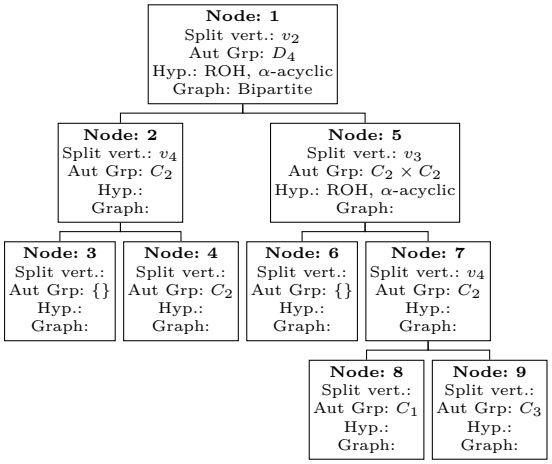
(a) Automorphism Tree of Hypergraph $6A$ from [SS24] in `FK-A`.



(b) Automorphism Tree of ROH Hypergraph $6B$ from [SS24] in `FK-A`.



(c) Automorphism Tree of ROH Hypergraph $6C$ from [SS24] in `FK-A`.



(d) Automorphism Tree of Hypergraph $6D$ from [SS24] in `FK-A`.

Figure 5.4: `FK-A` recursion tree and automorphism tree of $6A$, $6B$, $6C$, and $6D$

Bibliography

[ACS15] João Araújo, Peter Cameron, and Benjamin Steinberg, *Between primitive and 2-transitive: Synchronization and its friends*, http://arxiv.org/abs/1511.03184 **4** (2015).

[AGT12] Isolde Adler, Tom Gaven, and Tereza, *Hypertree-depth and minors in hypergraphs*, Theoret. Comput. Sci. **463** (2012), 84–95.

[BC15] L. Babai and Peter J. Cameron, *Most primitive groups are full automorphism groups of edge-transitive hypergraphs*, J. Algebra **421** (2015), 512–523.

[BCW24] R. A. Bailey, Peter J. Cameron, and Yaokun Wu (eds.), *Groups and graphs, designs and dynamics*, London Mathematical Society Lecture Note Series, vol. 491, Cambridge University Press, Cambridge, 2024. MR 4813455

[Ber87] Claude Berge, *Hypergraphes*, μ_B, Dunod, Paris, 1987, Combinatoire des ensembles finis. [Combinatorics of finite sets].

[BGH98] Endre Boros, Vladimir Gurvich, and Peter L. Hammer, *Dual subimplicants of positive boolean functions*, Optim. Methods Softw. **10** (1998), no. 2, 147–156, Dedicated to Professor Masao Iri on the occasion of his 65th birthday.

[BS15] Amin Bahmanian and Mateja Sajna, *Hypergraphs: connection and separation*, 2015.

[Cam22] Peter J. Cameron, *Graphs defined on groups*, Int. J. Group Theory **11** (2022), no. 2, 53–107. MR 4346241

[CH11] Yves Crama and Peter L. Hammer, *Boolean functions*, Encyclopedia of Mathematics and its Applications, vol. 142, Cambridge University Press, Cambridge, 2011, Theory, algorithms, and applications. MR 2742439

[Cha] Chair of Algebra and Discrete Structures, TU Dresden.

[Che67] Michel Chein, *Algorithmes d'ecriture de fonctions booleennes croissantes en sommes et produits*, Revue Française d'Informatique et de Recherche Opérationnelle **1** (1967).

[CKP20] Stavros Cosmadakis, Dimitris Kavvadias, and Lina Panagopoulou, *Resolution-based algorithms for the transversal hypergraph generation problem*, Theoretical Computer Science **815** (2020), 1–10.

[CLB81] D. G. Corneil, H. Lerchs, and L. Stewart Burlingham, *Complement reducible graphs*, Discrete Appl. Math. **3** (1981), no. 3, 163–174. MR 619603

[Cro23] Rachel Crowell, *Ninth dedekind number found by two independent groups*, Quanta Magazine (2023).

[DNU21] Oscar Defrain, Lhouari Nourine, and Takeaki Uno, *On the dualization in distributive lattices and related problems*, Discrete Appl. Math. **300** (2021), 85–96. MR 4264158

[DPP18] Megan Dewar, David Pike, and John Proos, *Connectivity in hypergraphs*, Canad. Math. Bull. **61** (2018), no. 2, 252–271.

[EG02] Thomas Eiter and Georg Gottlob, *Hypergraph transversal computation and related problems in logic and ai*, Proceedings of the European Conference on Logics in Artificial Intelligence, Springer-Verlag, 2002, pp. 549–564.

[EGM03] Thomas Eiter, Georg Gottlob, and Kazuhisa Makino, *New results on monotone dualization and generating hypergraph transversals*, SIAM J. Comput. **32** (2003), no. 2, 514–537.

[Eit94] Thomas Eiter, *Exact transversal hypergraphs and application to boolean μ-functions*, J. Symbolic Comput. **17** (1994), no. 3, 215–225. MR 1287329

[EMG08] Thomas Eiter, Kazuhisa Makino, and Georg Gottlob, *Computational aspects of monotone dualization: a brief survey*, Discrete Appl. Math. **156** (2008), no. 11, 2035–2049.

[ER10] Khaled Elbassioni and Imran Rauf, *Polynomial-time dualization of r-exact hypergraphs with applications in geometry*, Discrete Math. **310** (2010), 153–163.

[FK96] Michael L. Fredman and Leonid Khachiyan, *On the complexity of dualization of monotone disjunctive normal forms*, J. Algorithms **21** (1996), no. 3, 618–628.

[GDVL17] Andrew Gainer-Dewar and Paola Vera-Licona, *The minimal hitting set generation problem: algorithms and computation*, SIAM J. Discrete Math. **31** (2017), no. 1, 63–100.

[GK99] V. Gurvich and L. Khachiyan, *On generating the irredundant conjunctive and disjunctive normal forms of monotone boolean functions*, Discrete Appl. Math. **96/97** (1999), 363–373.

[GMR06] Martin Charles Golumbic, Aviad Mintz, and Udi Rotics, *Factoring and recognition of read-once functions using cographs and normality and the readability of functions associated with partial k-trees*, Discrete Appl. Math. **154** (2006), no. 10, 1465–1477. MR 2222833

[Gur77] V. A. Gurvič, *Repetition-free boolean functions*, Uspehi Mat. Nauk **32** (1977), no. 1(193), 183–184. MR 441560

[Hag08] Matthias Hagen, *Algorithmic and computational complexity issues of monet*, Ph.D. thesis, Friedrich-Schiller-Universität Jena, 2008.

[Hay75] John P. Hayes, *The fanout structure of switching functions*, J. Assoc. Comput. Mach. **22** (1975), no. 4, 551–571. MR 389420

[Her04] Philipp Hertel, *Some algorithmic and complexity results for monotone boolean duality (hypergraph transversal)*, Master's thesis, University of Toronto, 2004.

[HKS08] Utz-Uwe Haus, Steffen Klamt, and Tamon Stephen, *Computing knock-out strategies in metabolic networks*, J. Comput. Biol. **15** (2008), no. 3, 259–268.

[KBEG06] Leonid Khachiyan, Endre Boros, Khaled Elbassioni, and Vladimir Gurvich, *An efficient implementation of a quasi-polynomial algorithm for generating hypergraph transversals and its application in joint generation*, Discrete Appl. Math. **154** (2006), no. 16, 2350–2372.

[KLN+93] M. Karchmer, N. Linial, I. Newman, M. Saks, and A. Wigderson, *Combinatorial characterization of read-once formulae*, Discrete Math. **114** (1993), no. 1-3, 275–282, Combinatorics and algorithms (Jerusalem, 1988). MR 1217758

[KS03] Dimitris J. Kavvadias and Elias C. Stavropoulos, *Monotone boolean dualization is in co-np[$\log^2 n$]*, Information Processing Letters **85** (2003), no. 1, 1–6.

[MZ11] Martin Mundhenk and Robert Zeranski, *How to apply sat-solving for the equivalence test of monotone normal forms*, Theory and application of satisfiability testing—SAT 2011, Lecture Notes in Comput. Sci., vol. 6695, Springer, Heidelberg, 2011, pp. 105–119. MR 2826342

[Rau11] Imran Rauf, *Polynomially solvable cases of hypergraph transversal and related problems*, Ph.D. thesis, Saarland University, 2011.

[Rei87] R. Reiter, *A theory of diagnosis from first principles*, Artif. Intell. **32** (1987), no. 1, 57–95.

[RMN06] Olivier Raynaud, Raoul Medina, and Caroline Noyer, *Twin vertices in hypergraphs*, Electronic Notes in Discrete Mathematics **27** (2006), 87–89.

[Spi16] Pablo Spiga, *Finite primitive groups and edge-transitive hypergraphs*, J. Algebraic Combin. **43** (2016), no. 3, 715–734. MR 3482445

[SS24] Parsa Salimi and Tamon Stephen, *Hypergraphs transversals near the fredman-khachiyan bound*, 2024, Manuscript in Progress.

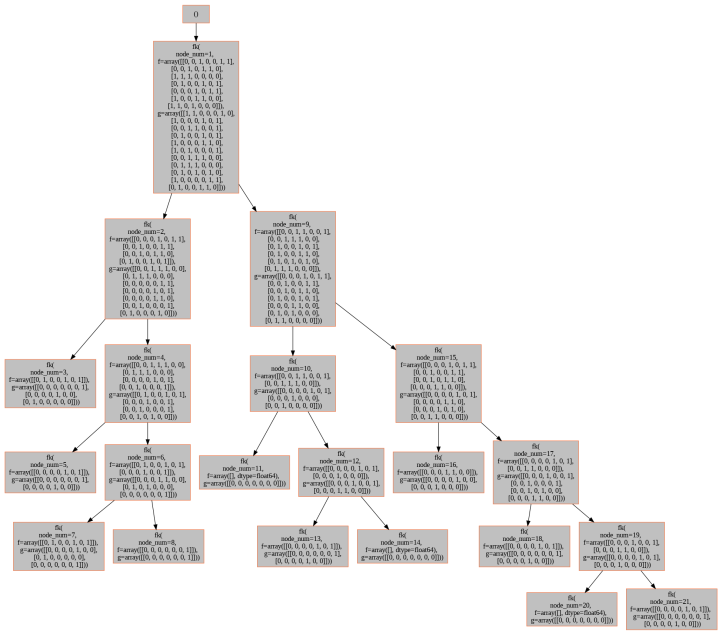
[SY14] Tamon Stephen and Timothy Yusun, *Counting inequivalent monotone boolean functions*, Discrete Appl. Math. **167** (2014), 15–24.

[Tak08] Ken Takata, *A worst-case analysis of the sequential method to list the minimal hitting sets of a hypergraph*, SIAM J. Discrete Math. **21** (2008), no. 4, 936–946.

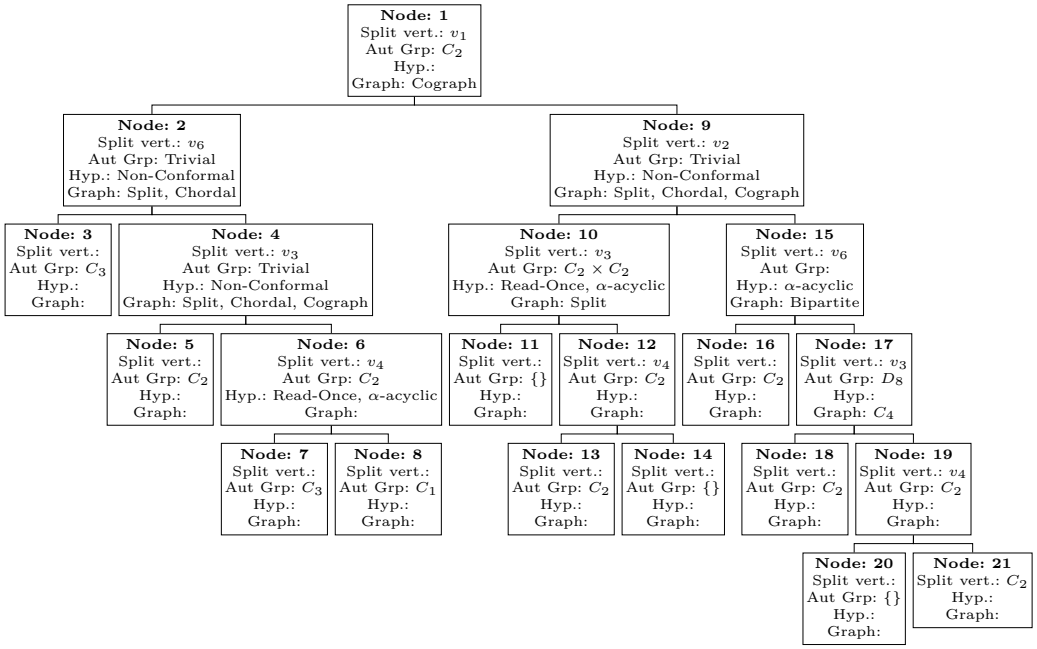
[Tim13] Mattias Timonen, *The class of distance hereditary graphs, the hamiltonian problems and a linear time algorithm*, Phd thesis, Matematiska Institutionen, Stockholms Universitet, 2013.

[Uno] Takeaki Uno, *Dualization problems in hypergraphs and related algorithms*, https://research.nii.ac.jp/~uno/dualization.html, Accessed 2024.

5.4 Appendix of Figures

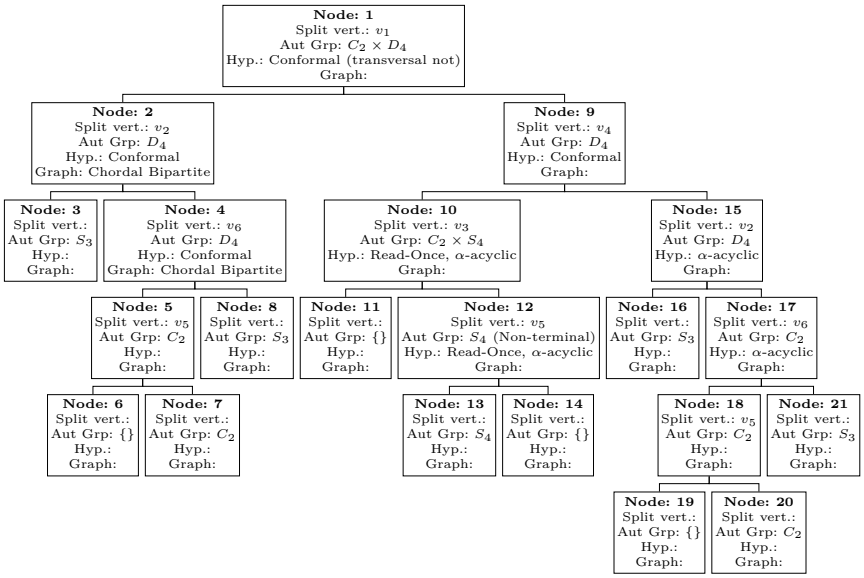


(a) Visualization of 7-vertex Hypergraph in FK-A

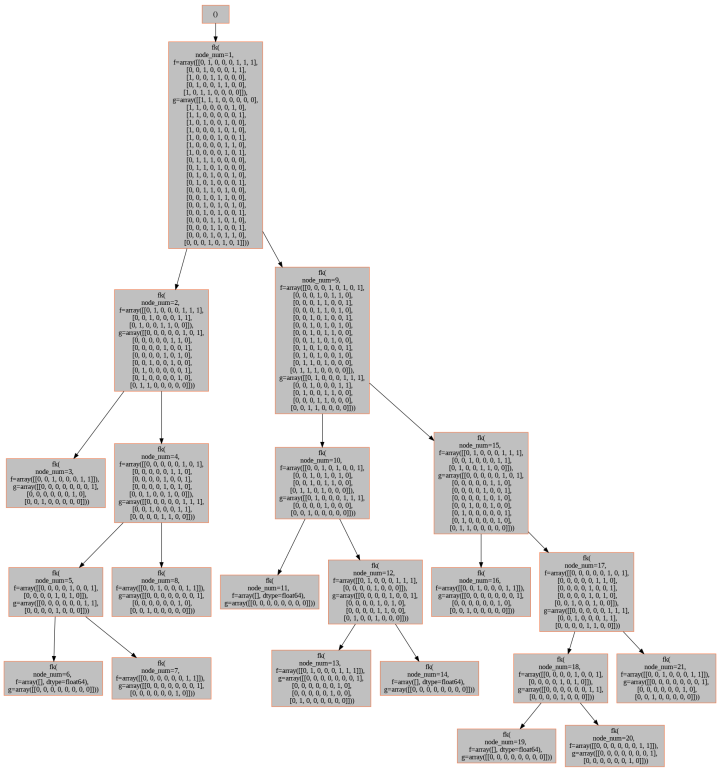


(b) Automorphism Tree of 7-ver Hypergraph in FK-A

Figure 5: FK-A recursion tree and automorphism tree of 7-Ver. Hypergraph



(a) Automorphism Tree of 8-ver in `FK-A`



(b) Figures/8Var in`FK-A`.png

Figure 6: `FK-A` recursion tree and automorphism tree of 8-ver. hypergraph

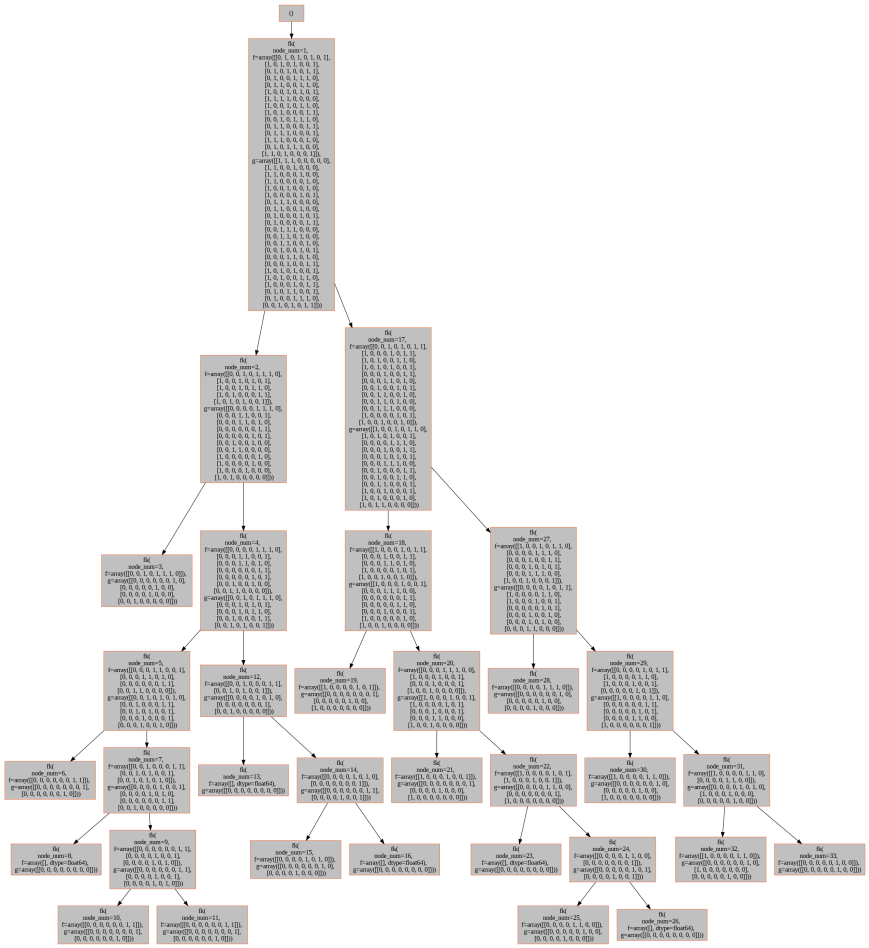


Figure 7: FK-A recursion tree on asymmetric hypergraph $Asym_1$

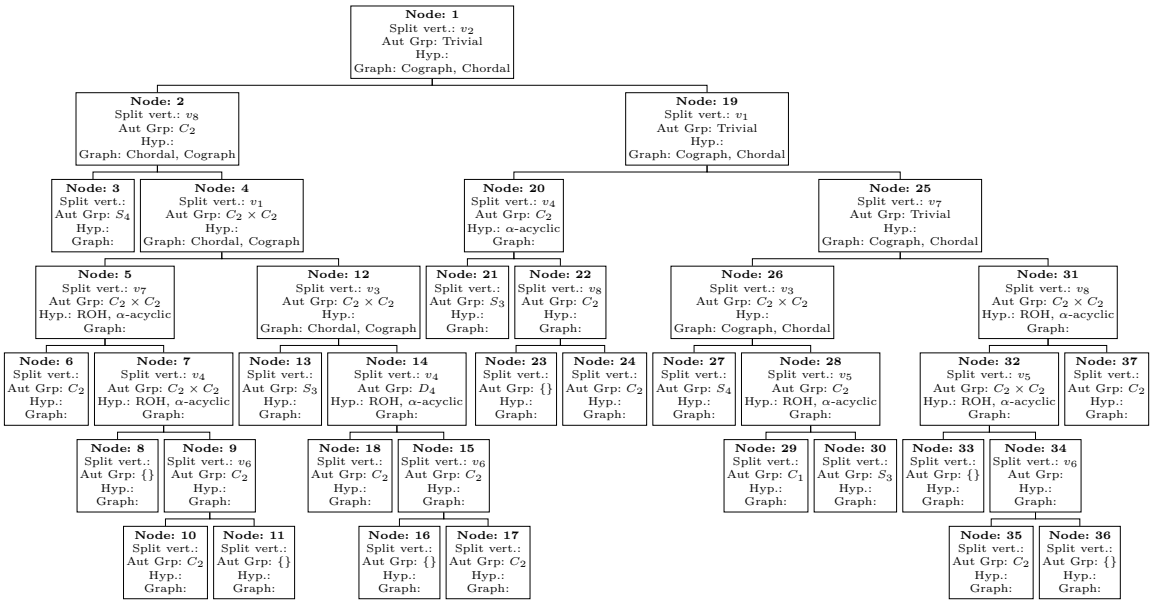


Figure 8: Automorphism Tree of an asymmetric hypergraph **Asym**-1 in FK-A

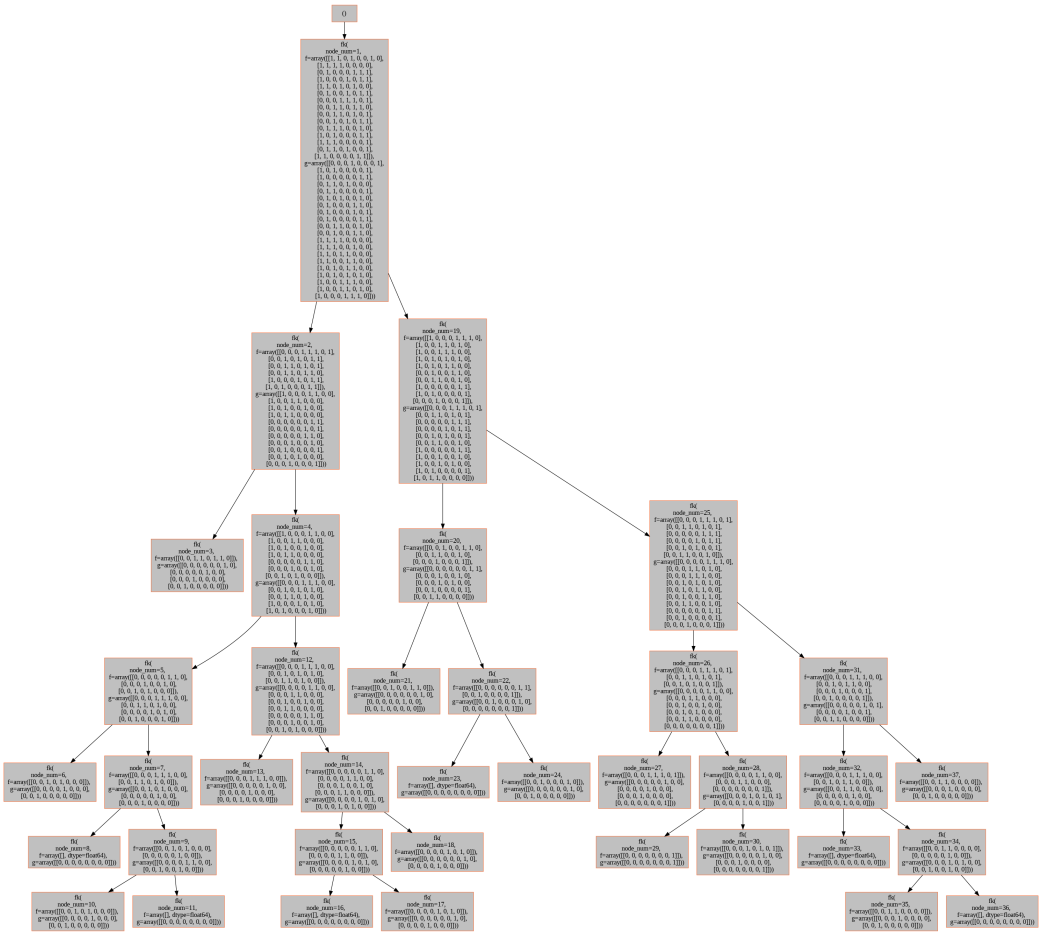


Figure 9: `FK-A` recursion tree on asymmetric hypergraph $Asym_2$

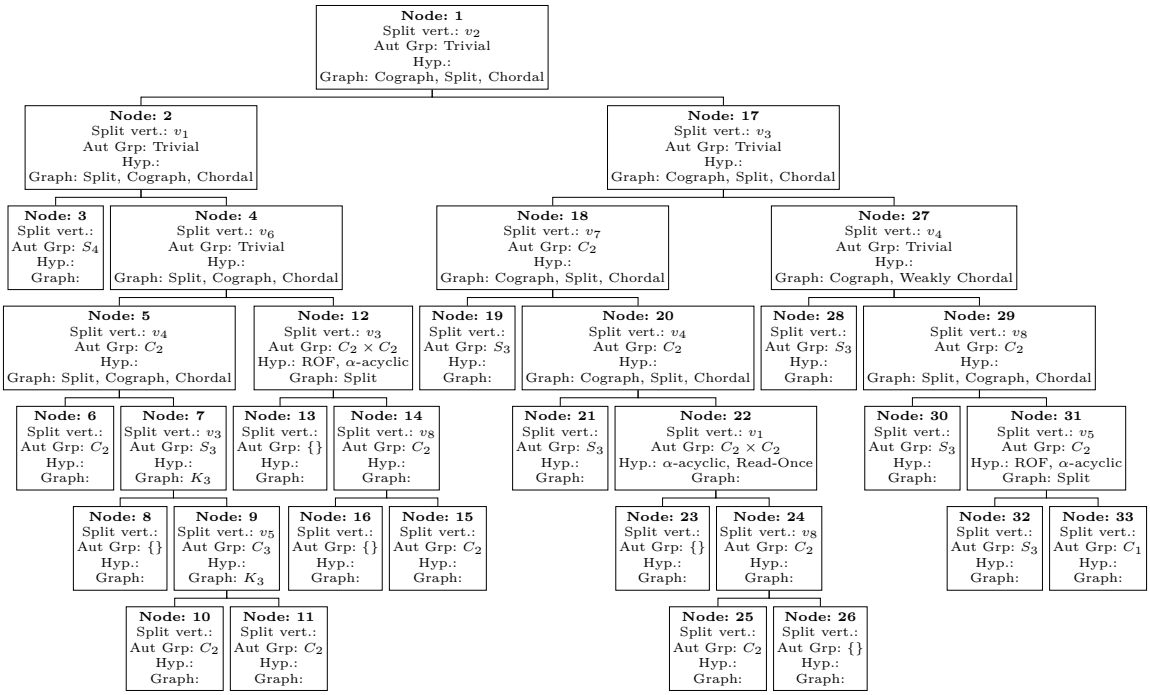


Figure 10: Automorphism Tree of an asymmetric hypergraph **Asym**-2in `FK-A`